

## Indian Traditions, Culture and Society

- India is a diverse country with a rich and varied heritage of languages, religions, arts, cuisines, philosophies, and customs.
- India's culture and traditions are influenced by its ancient history, geography, and various invasions and migrations over the centuries.
- Some of the main aspects of Indian culture and traditions are:
  - **Arts and Language:** India has a long and distinguished tradition of literature, music, dance, architecture, painting, and sculpture. India has 22 official languages and hundreds of regional dialects. The most ancient and influential language is Sanskrit, which is the source of many Indo-European languages and the language of Hindu scriptures and classical literature. Other prominent languages include Hindi, Urdu, Bengali, Tamil, Telugu, Marathi, Gujarati, Malayalam, Kannada, and Punjabi. India also has a vibrant and diverse film industry, known as Bollywood, which produces movies in various languages and genres.
  - **Philosophy and Religion:** India is the birthplace of four major world religions: Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism, and Sikhism. Hinduism is the oldest and most widely practiced religion in India, with a variety of sects, beliefs, and practices. Hinduism is based on the concept of dharma, or the cosmic order, and the cycle of reincarnation and karma. Buddhism and Jainism emerged as reform movements within Hinduism, emphasizing non-violence, compassion, and detachment from worldly desires. Sikhism was founded by Guru Nanak in the 15th century, as a monotheistic faith that combines elements of Hinduism and Islam. India also has a significant population of Muslims, Christians, Jews, Parsis, and other faiths, who have contributed to the religious diversity and tolerance of the country.
  - **Food and Drink:** The cuisine of India varies considerably across its various regions and ethnic communities. Indian food is known for its use of spices, herbs, grains, legumes, vegetables, fruits, dairy products, and meat. Some of the staple foods of India include rice, wheat, millet, lentils, chickpeas, potatoes, onions, garlic, ginger, chilies, turmeric, cumin, coriander, cardamom, saffron, and ghee. Some of the popular dishes of India include biryani, curry, dal, roti, naan, dosa, idli, samosa, chaat, pakora, tandoori, kebab, korma, paneer, raita, lassi, chai, and sweets such as halwa, jalebi, barfi, and kulfi. India also has a rich and varied tradition of vegetarianism, influenced by religious and ethical beliefs.
  - **Society and Culture:** India is a multi-ethnic, multi-lingual, and multi-cultural society, with a complex and dynamic social structure. India has a hierarchical system of social groups, known as castes, which are based on birth, occupation, and status. The caste system

has been a source of social discrimination, oppression, and reform movements in India. India also has a patriarchal and patrilineal system of family and kinship, where the father is the head of the household and the eldest son inherits the property and responsibilities. However, there are also matrilineal and matriarchal communities in some parts of India, where the mother or the eldest daughter is the head of the family. India also has a diverse and vibrant culture of festivals, ceremonies, rituals, customs, and traditions, which celebrate various aspects of life, such as birth, marriage, death, harvest, seasons, religious events, and national occasions. Some of the major festivals of India include Diwali, Holi, Dussehra, Navratri, Eid, Christmas, Guru Nanak Jayanti, Buddha Purnima, Mahavir Jayanti, and Republic Day.

## **Module 1- Society State and Polity in India**

This module aims to provide an overview of the historical and contemporary aspects of the society, state and polity in India. It covers the following topics:

- The concept and evolution of the Indian state and its relation to society and culture.
- The constitutional framework and the political institutions of India, such as the executive, the legislature, the judiciary and the federal system.
- The role and impact of social movements, civil society, media and public opinion on the Indian polity.
- The challenges and opportunities of democracy, development, diversity and diplomacy in India.

Some of the key points to remember are:

- India has a rich and diverse heritage of political thought and practice, dating back to ancient times. Some of the influential thinkers and leaders include Kautilya, Ashoka, Akbar, Gandhi, Nehru and Ambedkar.
- India is the largest democracy in the world, with a population of over 1.3 billion people and a multiparty system. It has a parliamentary form of government, with a president as the nominal head of state and a prime minister as the head of government.
- India has a written constitution, which is the supreme law of the land. It lays down the fundamental rights and duties of the citizens, the directive principles of state policy, and the basic structure of the government. It also provides for a secular, socialist and federal republic.
- India has a bicameral legislature, consisting of the Lok Sabha (the lower house) and the Rajya Sabha (the upper house). The Lok Sabha is directly elected by the people, while the Rajya Sabha is indirectly elected by the state legislatures. The Lok Sabha has more power and influence than the Rajya Sabha, especially in matters of finance and legislation.
- India has an independent judiciary, headed by the Supreme Court, which

is the guardian of the constitution and the final arbiter of disputes. The Supreme Court has the power of judicial review, which means it can strike down any law or action that violates the constitution. It also has the power of judicial activism, which means it can intervene in matters of public interest and human rights.

- India has a federal system, which means it has a division of power between the central government and the state governments. The constitution lists the subjects on which the central government, the state governments and both of them have exclusive or concurrent jurisdiction. The central government can also impose emergency rule in a state under certain circumstances.
- India has a vibrant and diverse civil society, which consists of various non-governmental organizations, social movements, media outlets, interest groups and citizens' initiatives. They play an important role in raising awareness, mobilizing people, influencing policies and holding the government accountable.
- India faces many challenges and opportunities in its polity, such as ensuring inclusive and participatory democracy, promoting social justice and human development, managing diversity and pluralism, and enhancing its role and image in the world.

### **State in Ancient India**

- The state in ancient India was a social organization with political power that ensured peace, order and happiness.
- The origin of the state in ancient India is not clear, but there are three main theories: social contract theory, divine origin theory and organic theory.
- Social contract theory: This theory suggests that the state was formed by a voluntary agreement among the people to surrender some of their rights and freedoms to a ruler or a group of rulers in exchange for protection and welfare.
- Divine origin theory: This theory claims that the state was created by God or gods and that the ruler or rulers were chosen by divine will or descent.
- Organic theory: This theory holds that the state was a natural and inevitable outcome of the growth and development of human society, and that the ruler or rulers were the representatives or the head of the society.
- The types of states in ancient India were loosely categorized into monarchy, republic and oligarchy.
- Monarchy: This was the most prevalent type of state in ancient India, where the king was the supreme authority and the source of power for the ministers, governors, village councils, town councils and trade guilds. The king was assisted by a council of ministers and a bureaucracy. The king was also expected to uphold the dharma (righteousness) and protect the people.

- Republic: This was a type of state where the people had a say in the governance through assemblies or councils of elders, nobles, warriors or citizens. The republics were usually small and autonomous, and often formed confederations or alliances with other republics for mutual defense or common interests. Some examples of republics in ancient India are the Sakyas, the Koliyas, the Mallas, the Vrijis and the Licchavis.
- Oligarchy: This was a type of state where the power was concentrated in the hands of a few individuals or families, who were either wealthy, influential or military leaders. The oligarchs often exploited the masses and oppressed the weaker sections of the society. Some examples of oligarchies in ancient India are the Nandas, the Mauryas, the Sungas and the Kanvas.
- The state in ancient India was influenced by various factors such as geography, climate, culture, religion, economy, trade, warfare, migration and invasion.
- The earliest state in ancient India was the Indus Valley Civilization, which flourished from 3300 BCE to 1300 BCE in the regions of modern-day Pakistan and northwest India. It was a highly urbanized and sophisticated civilization with advanced technology, standardized weights and measures, seal carving, metallurgy, writing, art and architecture.
- The later states in ancient India were mainly divided into two periods: the Vedic Period (1500 BCE to 600 BCE) and the Classical Period (600 BCE to 600 CE).
- The Vedic Period was marked by the arrival of the Indo-Aryan people from Central Asia, who brought with them the Vedic religion, culture and language. The Vedic states were mostly tribal and pastoral, with a hierarchical social structure based on the varna (caste) system. The Vedic states were also engaged in frequent wars with each other and with the indigenous people.
- The Classical Period was characterized by the emergence of large and powerful empires, such as the Magadha Empire, the Mauryan Empire, the Kushan Empire, the Gupta Empire and the Harsha Empire. The Classical states were more centralized and bureaucratic, with a codified legal system, a complex economy, a flourishing trade and a rich cultural and intellectual life. The Classical states were also influenced by various religious and philosophical movements, such as Buddhism, Jainism, Hinduism, Upanishads, Vedanta, Sankhya, Yoga, Nyaya, Vaisheshika, Mimamsa and Lokayata.

### Theories of origin of State in India

The origin of state in India is a subject of debate among scholars of political science and history. There are different theories that attempt to explain how the state emerged and evolved in ancient India. Some of the prominent theories are:

- **Social Contract Theory:** This theory holds that the state was formed

by a voluntary agreement among individuals who gave up some of their natural rights and freedoms in exchange for security and order. The state was seen as a human creation that could be changed or abolished by the consent of the people. This theory is found in some of the ancient texts such as the Mahabharata, the Arthashastra and the Manusmriti .

- **Divine Origin Theory:** This theory asserts that the state was established by the will of God or gods who chose a king or a dynasty to rule over the people. The king was considered as the representative or the incarnation of the divine power and was expected to uphold the dharma or the cosmic law. The state was seen as a sacred institution that could not be challenged or questioned by the people. This theory is found in some of the ancient texts such as the Ramayana, the Puranas and the Vedas .
- **Organic Theory:** This theory suggests that the state was a natural and inevitable outcome of the social and economic development of the human society. The state was seen as a living organism that grew and changed according to the needs and aspirations of the people. The state was also influenced by the geographical and cultural factors that shaped the identity and character of the people. This theory is found in some of the ancient texts such as the Shantiparva, the Digheya Nikaya and the Upanishads .

These theories are not mutually exclusive and may have some elements of truth and validity. However, they also have some limitations and criticisms. For example, the social contract theory may not account for the diversity and complexity of the Indian society and the role of caste, class and gender in the formation of the state. The divine origin theory may not explain the changes and conflicts that occurred in the political history of India and the role of human agency and rationality in the statecraft. The organic theory may not address the issues of justice and equality that are essential for the legitimacy and stability of the state. Therefore, the origin of state in India may not be explained by a single theory but by a combination of multiple factors and perspectives.

### Evolutionary Theory of origin of State

- The Evolutionary Theory of origin of State is the theory that explains the state as the product of historical and social evolution over a long period of time .
- According to this theory, the state is not a sudden or artificial creation, but a natural and gradual development of human society from simple to complex forms of organization .
- The Evolutionary Theory traces the origin of the state from the primitive stages of human society, such as the family, the clan, the tribe, the village, the city, and the nation, and shows how various factors, such as population growth, economic activities, warfare, religion, law, and culture, influenced the formation and expansion of the state .
- The Evolutionary Theory is regarded as the most scientific and convincing

theory of origin of the state, as it is based on historical evidence and empirical data, and it accounts for the diversity and complexity of the state in different regions and times .

- The Evolutionary Theory also helps to understand the functions and purposes of the state, as it shows the state to be a response to the needs and challenges of human society, and a means of achieving social order, security, justice, and welfare .

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### Force Theory of Origin of State

- This theory proposes that the origin of state is developed through the use of force.
- One person or a small group of people claim control over the population in a specific area by force . Once the rule is well established, the state is established.
- This theory is generally a result of war. There is an old saying that war begets the king .
- Force has played an important part in the origin and development of some of the greatest empires of history. Force is an essential element of the state.
- However, this theory is fallacious and incomplete, as it does not explain the origin of the state in peaceful and democratic societies . It also ignores the role of consent, cooperation, and social contract in the formation of the state .

### Mystical Theory of Origin of State

- The mystical theory of origin of state is also known as the **divine origin theory** or the **theory of divine right of kings** .
- The exponents of this theory believe that the state did not come into being by any effort of man, but by the **will of God** .
- According to this theory, the **king** or the **ruler** of the state is the **representative** or the **vicegerent** of God on earth .
- The king or the ruler has the **absolute authority** and the **infallible wisdom** to govern the state and the people .
- The people have the **duty** and the **obligation** to **obey** the king or the ruler without any question or resistance .
- The mystical theory of origin of state was popular in the **ancient** and the **medieval** times, especially in **Egypt, China, India, Persia, Greece,**

**Rome, and Europe .**

- The mystical theory of origin of state was used to **justify** the **tyranny** and the **oppression** of the kings and the rulers over the people .
- The mystical theory of origin of state was **challenged** and **rejected** by the **modern** and the **scientific** theories of origin of state, such as the **historical** or the **evolutionary** theory .
- The historical or the evolutionary theory explains that the state is the product of **growth**, a slow and steady **evolution** extending over a long period of time and ultimately shaping itself into the complex structure of a modern state .
- The historical or the evolutionary theory is more **scientific**, **empirical**, and **realistic** than the mystical theory of origin of state .

### **Contract Theory of Origin of State**

- The contract theory of origin of state is a theory that explains how the state or society emerged from a voluntary agreement or contract among individuals or groups of people.
- The theory assumes that there was a pre-social or pre-political condition called the state of nature, where people lived in a natural state without any authority, law, or order.
- The theory also assumes that people in the state of nature faced various problems and inconveniences, such as insecurity, violence, fear, scarcity, and conflict.
- To overcome these problems and to secure their rights, interests, and welfare, people decided to enter into a contract or pact with each other, by which they agreed to give up some of their natural freedoms and submit to a common authority or government, which would protect them and enforce the laws.
- The theory further assumes that the contract or pact was based on the consent of the governed, and that the authority or government derived its legitimacy and power from the people who made the contract.
- The contract theory of origin of state has been developed and elaborated by various thinkers, such as Thomas Hobbes, John Locke, Jean-Jacques Rousseau, and Immanuel Kant, who have different views on the nature and terms of the contract, the role and function of the authority or government, and the rights and duties of the people.

### **Stages of State Formation in Ancient India**

The state is a political institution that exercises authority and control over a territory and its people. The origin and evolution of the state in ancient India is a complex and debated topic, but some general stages can be identified based on historical and archaeological evidence. These stages are:

- **Pre-state societies:** These were the earliest forms of human settlements in India, dating back to the Paleolithic and Neolithic periods. They were

based on hunting, gathering, fishing, and primitive agriculture. They had no centralized authority, but rather followed kinship, clan, or tribal ties. Examples of such societies are the Harappan civilization, the megalithic cultures, and the Aryan tribes.

- **Janapadas:** These were the first states that emerged in India, around the 6th century BCE, along the river valleys of the Indus, the Ganges, and their tributaries. They were based on agricultural surplus, trade, commerce, and urbanization. They had a king or a chief as the head of the state, who was assisted by a council of elders or nobles. They also had a system of taxation, administration, and law. Examples of such states are Kuru, Panchala, Kosala, Magadha, etc.
- **Mahajanapadas:** These were the larger and more powerful states that developed from the janapadas, around the 5th century BCE, as a result of wars, alliances, and expansion. They had a more centralized and bureaucratic structure, with a king as the supreme ruler, who was supported by a large army, a court, and a ministry. They also had a more complex and diverse society, with various classes, castes, and religions. Examples of such states are Magadha, Kosala, Avanti, Vatsa, etc.
- **Empires:** These were the states that achieved imperial domination over a vast territory and a large population, around the 4th century BCE, as a result of conquest, diplomacy, and integration. They had a highly centralized and autocratic structure, with an emperor as the absolute sovereign, who was revered as a god or a representative of god. They also had a sophisticated and elaborate system of administration, taxation, law, culture, and religion. Examples of such states are the Mauryan empire, the Kushan empire, the Gupta empire, etc.
- **Regional kingdoms:** These were the states that emerged after the decline of the empires, around the 6th century CE, as a result of fragmentation, decentralization, and localism. They had a more feudal and hierarchical structure, with a king as the nominal ruler, who was dependent on the loyalty and support of his vassals, nobles, and generals. They also had a more diverse and dynamic society, with various ethnic, linguistic, and religious groups. Examples of such states are the Pallavas, the Chalukyas, the Pratiharas, the Rashtrakutas, etc.

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### **Kingship in states in ancient India**

- Kingship in ancient India was a sovereignty over a territory by a king who functioned as its protector, a role which involved both secular and religious power.
- The meaning and significance of kingship changed dramatically between the Vedic and Later Vedic period, and underwent further development under the times of the Jain and Buddhist rulers.



- Ancient Indians believed that kingship arose out of military requirement. A king must be a capable general whose leadership is recognized by all.
- There were three main theories of origin of kingship and state in ancient India: divine origin theory, social contract theory, and patriarchal theory.
- Divine origin theory: This theory of origin of kingship as well as the state was not widely acclaimed in the ancient Indian polity. The king, according to this theory, was a subordinate to law, which was made by the society and not him.
- Social contract theory: This theory of origin of kingship as well as the state was more popular in the ancient Indian polity. The king, according to this theory, was a representative of the people who had voluntarily surrendered their rights and powers to him for the sake of security and order.
- Patriarchal theory: This theory of origin of kingship as well as the state was based on the assumption that the king was the eldest male member of the clan or tribe who had the authority to rule over his kinsmen.
- The ideology and symbolism of kingship have played an important role in Hinduism throughout its history, an influence that continues into the present day. The two great epic texts, the Mahābhārata and Rāmāyaṇa, are narratives of kingship, and the tensions and ambiguities inherent to the role of the king are fundamental to their plots and themes.
- The Brahmanic theory of kingship was the most influential and dominant theory of kingship in ancient India. It asserted that the king was a divine incarnation or a representative of the gods, and that he had the duty to uphold the dharma (moral order) and protect the varṇa (social order) of the society.
- The king was also expected to perform various rituals and sacrifices to ensure the prosperity and welfare of his subjects and the cosmos. The king was assisted by a council of ministers, a priest, and a chief justice in his administration.
- The king was also subject to certain limitations and checks on his power, such as the law of karma (the principle of cause and effect), the public opinion, the advice of the wise, and the possibility of rebellion or invasion.

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### Council of Ministers in Ancient India

- The council of ministers was a group of advisers and officials who assisted the king in governing the state and implementing his policies.
- The council of ministers was also known as **Mantri-parishad**, **Mantri-mandala** or **Mantri-gana** in Sanskrit sources .
- The council of ministers was not a fixed or permanent body, but was formed according to the needs and preferences of the king. The number and rank of the ministers varied from time to time and from dynasty to

dynasty.

- The council of ministers was headed by the **Prime Minister** or **Mahamantri**, who was the chief confidant and representative of the king. He presided over the meetings of the council and coordinated the activities of the other ministers.
- The other ministers included the **Chief Justice** or **Pradvivaka**, who was in charge of the judicial administration and the law code; the **Commander-in-Chief** or **Senapati**, who was responsible for the military affairs and defense of the realm; the **Treasurer** or **Sannidhata**, who managed the finances and revenue of the state; the **Foreign Minister** or **Duta**, who handled the diplomatic relations and negotiations with other states; and the **Home Minister** or **Antahpala**, who supervised the internal security and public order .
- The ministers were selected by the king based on their qualifications, character, loyalty and experience. They were expected to be well-versed in the scriptures, politics, law, economics, military science and other branches of knowledge. They were also expected to be honest, impartial, courageous, wise and devoted to the king and the welfare of the people .
- The council of ministers had various functions and powers, such as advising the king on important matters, executing his orders, administering the different departments of the state, framing laws and regulations, maintaining peace and order, collecting taxes, conducting wars, making alliances, and representing the king in his absence .
- The council of ministers was an important institution in the ancient Indian polity, as it helped the king in carrying out his duties and responsibilities. It also acted as a check and balance on the king's authority, and ensured that the state was governed in accordance with the principles of dharma (righteousness) and artha (welfare) .

### Administration in Ancient India

- Administration in ancient India refers to the structures, procedures and behaviors that the ruling dynasties or emperors used to govern their respective territories and people.
- The earliest evidence of administration in ancient India can be traced to the Indus Valley civilization (2500-1700 BCE), which had a systematic and organized government in the cities of Mohenjodaro and Harappa. The Indus Valley civilization had a centralized authority, a uniform script, standardized weights and measures, urban planning, drainage system, public baths and granaries.
- After the decline of the Indus Valley civilization, the Vedic period (1500-600 BCE) witnessed the emergence of various tribal kingdoms and republics, which had different forms of administration. The most common form of government was monarchy, where the king was the supreme authority and was assisted by a council of ministers and advisers. The king performed various functions such as maintaining law and order, protect-

ing the people, performing sacrifices, collecting taxes and leading the army. The king was also bound by the dharma (duty) and the rita (cosmic order) and was expected to rule with justice and benevolence.

- The Vedic period also saw the development of the concept of saptanga or the seven limbs of the state, which consisted of the king, the minister, the territory, the fort, the treasury, the army and the ally. These seven elements were considered essential for the stability and prosperity of the state.
- The later Vedic period (600-300 BCE) witnessed the rise of the Mahajanapadas or the sixteen great kingdoms, which competed with each other for supremacy. Some of these kingdoms were monarchical, such as Magadha, Kosala and Avanti, while some were republican, such as the Vajji, the Malla and the Shakya. The republican states had a more democratic form of administration, where the people elected their representatives and participated in the decision-making process. The republican states also had a federation of clans or tribes, which formed a confederacy for mutual defense and cooperation.
- The Mauryan Empire (321-185 BCE) was the first pan-Indian empire, which unified most of the Indian subcontinent under one rule. The Mauryan administration was highly centralized and efficient, with a well-defined hierarchy of officials and departments. The emperor was the head of the state and the supreme commander of the army. He was assisted by a chief minister, who was in charge of the civil administration, and a council of ministers, who advised him on various matters. The empire was divided into provinces, districts, sub-districts and villages, each with its own governor, magistrate, collector and other officials. The Mauryan administration also had a secret service, a postal system, a judicial system, a revenue system and a welfare system. The Mauryan administration was guided by the Arthashastra, a treatise on statecraft and governance, written by Kautilya, the chief minister of Chandragupta Maurya.
- The post-Mauryan period (185 BCE-320 CE) saw the fragmentation of the Indian subcontinent into various regional kingdoms, such as the Sunga, the Satavahana, the Kushana, the Shaka, the Gupta and the Harsha. These kingdoms had different forms of administration, but they generally followed the Mauryan model of centralization and bureaucracy. The kings were the supreme authorities and were assisted by ministers, governors, generals and other officials. The kings also patronized various religions, arts, sciences and literature. The Gupta Empire (320-550 CE) is considered the golden age of ancient India, as it witnessed the peak of political, economic, cultural and intellectual achievements.
- The medieval period (550-1200 CE) saw the emergence of various regional powers, such as the Pallava, the Chalukya, the Rashtrakuta, the Pala, the Pratihara, the Chola, the Chahamana and the Hoysala. These kingdoms had different forms of administration, but they generally followed the feudal system, where the king granted lands and privileges to his no-

bles, vassals and subordinates in exchange for their loyalty, service and tribute. The kings also maintained a large army, a strong navy, a complex revenue system and a codified law. The kings also promoted various religions, such as Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism and Islam, and supported various temples, monasteries, schools and universities<sup>2</sup>

### Political Ideals in Ancient India and their relevance in modern times

- Ancient India had a rich tradition of political thought and practice that spanned from the Vedic period to the medieval period.
- Some of the political ideals that emerged from this tradition are:
  - Democracy: The Rig Veda, the oldest of the four Vedas, extolled the concept of **Samjnana**, which means the collective consciousness of the people, the national mind to which the individual mind is to pay its homage as the source from which it derives its potency. The Rig Veda also mentioned the institution of **Sabha** and **Samiti**, which were assemblies of the people that participated in the governance of the society. The later Vedic texts also described the role of **Panchayat**, which was a council of five elders that resolved disputes and administered justice at the local level.
  - Monarchy: Monarchy was also a popular form of government in ancient India, especially in the later Vedic period and the subsequent periods of the Mauryan, Gupta, and Mughal empires. The king was considered to be the representative of God on earth and was expected to rule according to the **Dharma**, which was the moral and cosmic law that governed the universe. The king was also advised by a council of ministers, priests, and other officials, who helped him in the administration of the state. The king was also bound by the **Dandaniti** or the science of politics, which was based on the **Itihasa** or the fifth Veda, which contained the historical and legendary accounts of the past kings and their deeds.
  - Republic: Republic was another form of government that existed in ancient India, especially in the regions of the Gangetic plains and the Himalayan foothills. These were independent states that were governed by a **Gana** or a **Sangha**, which was a confederation of clans or tribes that elected their own rulers and representatives. These republics had their own constitutions, laws, and armies, and maintained diplomatic relations with other states. Some of the famous republics of ancient India were the **Shakyas**, the **Koliyas**, the **Malas**, the **Vrijis**, and the **Lichchhavis**.
- The relevance of these political ideals in modern times are:
  - Democracy: Democracy is the most widely accepted and practiced form of government in the modern world, as it ensures the participation and representation of the people in the decision-making process.

Democracy also promotes the values of freedom, equality, justice, and human rights, which are essential for the development and well-being of the society. Democracy also fosters a culture of dialogue, debate, and diversity, which enriches the intellectual and cultural life of the nation. Democracy in India is the largest and one of the oldest in the world, as it traces its roots to the ancient Vedic tradition of Samjnana, Sabha, and Samiti.

- Monarchy: Monarchy is a form of government that is based on the hereditary succession of a single ruler, who has absolute or limited power over the state. Monarchy is not very common or popular in the modern world, as it is seen as a violation of the democratic principles and human rights. However, monarchy can also have some positive aspects, such as stability, continuity, and legitimacy, which can benefit the state in times of crisis or transition. Monarchy can also preserve the cultural and historical heritage of the nation, as the monarch can act as a symbol of national identity and unity. Monarchy in India was abolished after the independence from the British rule, but some of the former princely states still retain their titles and privileges as a part of the Indian federal system.
- Republic: Republic is a form of government that is based on the sovereignty of the people, who elect their own representatives and rulers. Republic is similar to democracy, but it differs in the sense that it does not have a hereditary or appointed head of state, but rather a president or a prime minister who is accountable to the people. Republic also emphasizes the separation of powers, the rule of law, and the protection of the rights and liberties of the citizens. Republic is a common and desirable form of government in the modern world, as it ensures the accountability and responsiveness of the government to the people. Republic in India is the result of the constitutional and democratic movement that led to the formation of the Indian Republic in

### Conditions of the Welfare of Societies in Ancient India

- The welfare of societies in ancient India was based on the concept of **duty** rather than **rights**. The rulers, the priests, the warriors, the merchants, and the workers had different duties and responsibilities according to their **varna** or social class. The varna system was a hierarchical and hereditary division of society that regulated the occupations, privileges, and obligations of each group .
- The welfare of societies in ancient India was also influenced by the **ashramas** or stages of life. These were four stages that each individual was expected to follow according to their age and status. The four ashramas were: **brahmacharya** (student life), **grihastha** (householder life), **vanaprastha** (retired life), and **sannyasa** (renounced life). Each ashrama had its own rules and duties that aimed to prepare the individual for the

ultimate goal of **moksha** or liberation from the cycle of rebirth.

- The welfare of societies in ancient India was further shaped by the **sanskaras** or sacraments. These were rites of passage that marked the important events and transitions in a person's life, such as birth, initiation, marriage, death, etc. The sanskaras were meant to purify, sanctify, and educate the individual and the society. They also reinforced the social norms and values of the varna and ashrama systems.
- The welfare of societies in ancient India was also dependent on the **family** as the basic unit of society. The family was a patriarchal and joint structure that included several generations of relatives living together under the authority of the eldest male. The family was responsible for the economic, social, religious, and educational needs of its members. The family also performed various rituals and ceremonies to honor the ancestors and the gods.
- The welfare of societies in ancient India was also affected by the **marriage** system. Marriage was considered a sacred and lifelong bond between a man and a woman of the same varna. The marriage was arranged by the parents or elders of the bride and groom, who had to pay a **dowry** or a gift to the groom's family. The marriage was solemnized by the performance of various rites and vows in the presence of a priest and witnesses. The marriage also established the rights and duties of the husband and wife, who had to be faithful, loyal, and supportive of each other.
- The welfare of societies in ancient India was also influenced by the **position of women**. Women in ancient India had a subordinate and dependent status in relation to men. They had limited rights and freedoms in the public and private spheres. They had to follow the rules of **pardah** or seclusion, which restricted their mobility and visibility. They had to obey their fathers, husbands, and sons, who were their guardians and protectors. They had to perform the domestic chores and bear and raise children. They had to observe the virtues of **pativrata** or chastity, **sati** or self-immolation on the husband's funeral pyre, and **jauhar** or mass suicide to avoid capture by enemies.
- The welfare of societies in ancient India was also related to the **dresses and ornaments**. The dresses and ornaments of the people in ancient India reflected their varna, ashrama, gender, region, and occasion. The common materials used for clothing were cotton, silk, wool, and linen. The common colors used were white, red, yellow, green, and blue. The common ornaments worn were earrings, necklaces, bracelets, rings, etc. made of gold, silver, copper, iron, ivory, etc. The dresses and ornaments also had symbolic and religious meanings, such as purity, auspiciousness, wealth, etc.
- The welfare of societies in ancient India was also connected to the **food habits**. The food habits of the people in ancient India varied according to their varna, ashrama, region, season, and availability. The common food items consumed were grains, pulses, vegetables, fruits, milk, ghee, honey, etc. The common beverages consumed were water, milk, juice, wine, etc.

The food habits also followed the rules of **ahimsa** or non-violence, **sattva** or purity, **rajas** or passion, and **tamas** or

#### The Seven Limbs of the State in Ancient India

The seven limbs of the state (saptanga) were the essential components of a political system according to Kautilya, the author of Arthashastra, a treatise on statecraft and governance in ancient India. The seven limbs were:

- King (swamin): The king was the supreme authority and the head of the state. He was responsible for maintaining peace, justice, and stability in the realm. He was expected to be virtuous, wise, brave, and benevolent. He was assisted by a council of ministers and advisors.
- Minister (amatya): The minister was the chief executive officer of the state. He was in charge of the administration, taxation, law and order, and foreign affairs. He was expected to be loyal, efficient, skilled, and experienced. He was selected by the king based on merit and ability.
- Territory (janapada): The territory was the land and the people of the state. It was the source of revenue, resources, and manpower for the state. It was expected to be fertile, prosperous, and populous. It was protected by the fort and the army.
- Fort (durga): The fort was the defensive structure of the state. It was the place where the king, the minister, and the treasury were located. It was expected to be strong, secure, and well-equipped. It was built in strategic locations such as mountains, forests, or islands.
- Treasury (kosa): The treasury was the financial resource of the state. It was the accumulation of taxes, tributes, fines, and spoils of war. It was expected to be abundant, well-managed, and well-spent. It was used for the maintenance of the state, the welfare of the people, and the expansion of the territory.
- Army (danda): The army was the coercive power of the state. It was the force that enforced the law, defended the territory, and subdued the enemies. It was expected to be disciplined, trained, and loyal. It was composed of four branches: infantry, cavalry, chariots, and elephants.
- Ally (mitra): The ally was the external support of the state. It was the friendly state that shared common interests, values, and enemies with the state. It was expected to be reliable, trustworthy, and helpful. It was formed by treaties, marriages, or gifts.

#### Society in Ancient India

- The society in ancient India was based on the concept of **varna**, which means color or class. There were four main varnas: **Brahmins** (priests and scholars), **Kshatriyas** (warriors and rulers), **Vaishyas** (merchants and farmers), and **Shudras** (servants and laborers).
- The varna system was not rigid or hereditary in the early Vedic period, but became more hierarchical and oppressive in the later periods. The

varnas were also subdivided into many **jatis** or castes, which were based on occupation, region, and lineage. The jatis had their own rules, customs, and rituals, and were often endogamous (marrying within the group).

- Below the four varnas, there were the **untouchables** or **Dalits**, who were considered impure and outcaste. They performed the most menial and polluting tasks, such as scavenging, leather work, and cremation. They faced discrimination and oppression from the upper varnas, and were denied access to education, temples, and public facilities. They were also known as **Harijans** (children of God) by Mahatma Gandhi, who fought for their rights and dignity.
- The society in ancient India was also influenced by the concept of **ashrama**, which means stage of life. There were four main ashramas: **Brahmacharya** (student life), **Grihastha** (householder life), **Vanaprastha** (retired life), and **Sannyasa** (renounced life). Each ashrama had its own duties, responsibilities, and goals, and was meant to help the individual attain **moksha** or liberation from the cycle of rebirth.
- The society in ancient India was also shaped by the diverse religions and cultures that emerged and coexisted in the region. The oldest religion in India is **Hinduism**, which is based on the Vedas, the Upanishads, and the epics of Ramayana and Mahabharata. Hinduism is a polytheistic and henotheistic religion, which means it worships many gods and goddesses, but also recognizes one supreme deity. Hinduism also believes in the concepts of **karma** (action and consequence), **dharma** (duty and morality), **samsara** (rebirth and reincarnation), and **atman** (soul or self).
- Other religions that emerged in ancient India include **Buddhism** and **Jainism**, which are both offshoots of Hinduism. Buddhism was founded by Siddhartha Gautama, who became known as the Buddha or the Enlightened One. Buddhism teaches the Four Noble Truths and the Eightfold Path, which are meant to help the individual overcome **dukkha** (suffering) and attain **nirvana** (enlightenment). Jainism was founded by Mahavira, who became known as the Jina or the Conqueror. Jainism teaches the principles of **ahimsa** (non-violence), **anekantavada** (non-absolutism), and **aparigraha** (non-attachment), which are meant to help the individual achieve **kaivalya** (isolation) and **moksha** (liberation).
- The society in ancient India was also enriched by the various civilizations and cultures that flourished and interacted in the region. The oldest civilization in India is the **Indus Valley Civilization**, which existed from 2500 BCE to 1900 BCE. It was a highly urbanized and sophisticated civilization, which had well-planned cities, advanced drainage and sanitation systems, standardized weights and measures, and a pictographic script. The Indus Valley Civilization is also known as the **Harappan Civilization**, after one of its major sites, Harappa.
- Other civilizations and cultures that influenced ancient India include the **Aryan Civilization**, which migrated from Central Asia and brought the Vedic culture and the Sanskrit language; the **Persian Civilization**, which ruled parts of northwest India and introduced the Zoroastrian religion and



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### **Purusārtha in Society in Ancient India**

- Purusārtha (Sanskrit: पुरुषार्थ) means “object (ive) of human pursuit” or “human goal”.
- It is a key concept in Hinduism that refers to the four proper goals or aims of a human life. These are: Dharma (righteousness, moral values), Artha (prosperity, economic values), Kama (pleasure, love, psychological values) and Moksha (liberation, spiritual values).
- The concept of Purusārtha is a fundamental principle of social ethics in ancient India. It is meant to set an ideal objective and also to convey the right means to achieve them. The four Purusārthas are not mutually exclusive, but interdependent and complementary. They are also flexible and adaptable to different stages of life, social contexts and individual preferences.
- The concept of Purusārtha also reflects the diversity and pluralism of ancient Indian society. Different schools of thought, such as Vedanta, Mimamsa, Nyaya, Samkhya, Yoga, Buddhism and Jainism, have different interpretations and emphases on the four Purusārthas. Some may prioritize one over the other, or reject one or more of them altogether. For example, the Charvaka school of materialism rejects the idea of Moksha and focuses only on Artha and Kama. The Buddhist and Jain schools reject the authority of the Vedas and the concept of Dharma as defined by them. The Vedanta school considers Moksha as the ultimate and highest Purusārtha, while the Mimamsa school considers Dharma as the supreme goal. The Nyaya and Samkhya schools regard Artha and Kama as subordinate to Dharma and Moksha, while the Yoga school emphasizes the practice of meditation and self-discipline as the means to attain Moksha.
- The concept of Purusārtha also has implications for the theory of Karma, which is the law of cause and effect that governs the cycle of rebirth (Samsara) in Hinduism. According to this theory, the actions and intentions of a person in this life determine their fate and quality of life in the next. The four Purusārthas provide a framework for understanding and evaluating one’s actions and intentions, and also for choosing the appropriate course of action in different situations. By following the principles of Dharma, Artha, Kama and Moksha, one can achieve a balanced and harmonious life, and also progress towards the ultimate goal of liberation from Samsara.

### **Varnāshrama System in Society in Ancient India**

- The varnāshrama system was a theoretical framework of social and moral order in ancient Hindu society.
- It consisted of two main concepts: varna and ashrama.

- Varna refers to the four-fold division of society into four classes or castes: Brahman, Kshatriya, Vaishya and Shudra.
- Ashrama refers to the four stages of life that a person should ideally follow: Brahmacharya (student), Grihastha (householder), Vanaprastha (forest dweller) and Sannyasa (renunciate).
- The varnāshrama system was based on the principle of dharma, which means duty, law or righteousness.
- Each varna and ashrama had its own specific duties and obligations, which were prescribed by the sacred texts and the lawgivers.
- The varnāshrama system aimed to maintain the harmony and balance of society and individual, as well as the cosmic order.
- The varnāshrama system was not rigid or fixed, but flexible and adaptable to different times and circumstances.
- The varnāshrama system was not based on birth or heredity, but on qualities, actions and aptitudes of a person.
- The varnāshrama system was not a system of oppression or discrimination, but a system of mutual cooperation and interdependence among the different sections of society.

### **Āshrama or the Stages of Life in Society in Ancient India**

- Āshrama (Sanskrit: आश्रम) is a system of stages of life discussed in Hindu texts of the ancient and medieval eras.
- The Āshrama system is one facet of the Dharma concept in Hinduism, which prescribes the duties and responsibilities of an individual according to their age, occupation, and social status .
- The four Āshramas are:
  - Brahmacharya (student), marked by chastity, devotion, and obedience to one's teacher. This stage lasts from childhood until the completion of education, usually around the age of 25.
  - Gṛhastha (householder), requiring marriage, the begetting of children, sustaining one's family and helping support priests and holy men, and fulfillment of duties toward gods and ancestors. This stage lasts from the end of education until the age of 50.
  - Vanaprastha (forest walker/forest dweller), involving gradual withdrawal from worldly affairs, detachment from material possessions, and contemplation of spiritual truths. This stage lasts from the age of 50 until the age of 75.
  - Sannyasa (renunciate), involving complete renunciation of worldly life, wandering as a mendicant, and seeking liberation from the cycle of birth and death. This stage lasts from the age of 75 until death.
- The Āshrama system was meant to provide a framework for the spiritual and moral development of an individual, as well as to maintain the social order and harmony in ancient India .

### **Marriage in Society in Ancient India**

- Marriage was a sacred institution that united two halves of life, man and woman, into a single organic whole.
- Marriage was also a social contract that established kinship ties, rights and duties, and mutual support between the spouses and their families.
- Marriage was regulated by various laws and customs, such as caste, gotra, varna, and kula, that determined the eligibility and compatibility of the partners.
- Marriage was performed through different rites and ceremonies, depending on the type and status of the marriage.
- There were eight main types of marriages in ancient India, namely Brahma, Daiva, Arsha, Prajapatya, Gandharva, Asura, Rakshasa, and Pisaka, each with its own characteristics and implications .
- Marriage was influenced by various factors, such as religion, culture, politics, and economics, that shaped the norms and expectations of the society.
- Marriage was not a static or uniform phenomenon, but a dynamic and diverse one, that changed and evolved over time and space.

### **Understanding Gender as a Social Category in Society in Ancient India**

- Gender is a social construct that defines the roles, expectations and norms associated with different sexes in a given society.
- In ancient India, gender roles were not fixed or rigid, but varied according to the time period, region, caste, class and religion.
- Generally, ancient India's society greatly favored men over women, and women were often subordinate to men in terms of rights, education, property and freedom.
- However, there were also some exceptions and variations in the status and role of women in ancient India, depending on the sources and contexts.
- Some of the main points to understand gender as a social category in society in ancient India are:
  - In the Vedic period (1500-600 BCE), women were considered with respect and dignity, and had access to education and religious rituals. There were women rishis (sages) and scholars, such as Gargi, Maitreyi and Lopamudra, who participated in philosophical debates and composed hymns. Women could also choose their husbands and remarry if widowed .
  - In the later Vedic period (600-300 BCE), the status of women declined as the society became more patriarchal and hierarchical. Women were expected to be obedient and loyal to their husbands and fathers, and were confined to the domestic sphere. They lost their rights to education, property and inheritance, and were subjected to practices such as child marriage, sati (self-immolation of widows)

and dowry .

- In the Mauryan period (321-185 BCE), the status of women varied according to their class and occupation. Women from the upper classes were secluded and oppressed, while women from the lower classes and the Buddhist and Jain communities had more freedom and opportunities. Women could also participate in trade, agriculture and crafts, and some women became rulers, such as Prabhavati Gupta and Rudramadevi .
- In the Gupta period (320-550 CE), the status of women further deteriorated as the society became more feudal and orthodox. Women were denied education and public life, and were subjected to harsh laws and punishments. They were also exploited and discriminated by the caste system and the religious institutions. However, some women still excelled in literature, art and science, such as Kalidasa's Shakuntala, Banabhatta's Yashomati and Aryabhata's Lilavati .
- In the medieval period (600-1700 CE), the status of women was influenced by the invasions, migrations and cultural interactions of various groups, such as the Turks, Mongols, Arabs, Persians and Europeans. Women faced violence, insecurity and oppression, and were often treated as spoils of war or objects of trade. They were also forced to follow strict codes of conduct and dress, such as purdah (veiling) and jauhar (mass suicide of women to avoid capture). However, some women also resisted and challenged the patriarchal norms, such as Razia Sultana, Rani Durgavati, Mirabai and Nur Jahan .

### **The representation of Women in Historical traditions in Society in Ancient India**

- Women in ancient India had a complex and varied status depending on the time period, the region, the religion, and the caste system.
- During the Indus Valley Civilization (c. 2500-1500 BCE), women were worshiped as mother goddesses and held an honored place in society. They could participate in war, gymnastics, public activities, decision-making, and education.
- During the Vedic period (c. 1500-500 BCE), women were respected and revered as wives, mothers, and sages. They could perform rituals, compose hymns, and study the Vedas. Some of the famous women sages were Gargi, Maitreyi, and Lopamudra .
- During the later Vedic period (c. 500-200 BCE), the status of women declined due to the rise of patriarchy, caste system, and Brahmanism. Women were confined to the domestic sphere and subjected to the authority of their fathers, husbands, and sons. They were denied education, property rights, and freedom of choice. They had to practice sati (self-immolation of widows), child marriage, and polygamy .
- During the Mauryan period (c. 321-185 BCE), the status of women improved slightly due to the influence of Buddhism and Jainism, which

advocated non-violence, equality, and compassion. Women could join the monastic orders, preach, and attain salvation. Some of the prominent women figures were Chandragupta Maurya's chief queen Durdhara, Ashoka's daughter Sanghamitra, and the Buddhist nun Dhammawati .

- During the Gupta period (c. 320-550 CE), the status of women deteriorated further due to the revival of Hinduism and the codification of the Manusmriti, which prescribed the ideal duties and behavior of women. Women were considered inferior, dependent, and impure. They were expected to be obedient, loyal, and chaste. They were barred from education, inheritance, and remarriage. They had to endure dowry, domestic violence, and social stigma .
- During the medieval period (c. 600-1700 CE), the status of women varied depending on the region, the dynasty, and the religion. The Muslim invasions and rule introduced new customs and laws that affected the women of both Hindu and Muslim communities. Some of the positive aspects were the emergence of women poets, saints, warriors, and rulers, such as Mirabai, Lal Ded, Rani Durgavati, and Razia Sultana. Some of the negative aspects were the imposition of purdah (veil), jauhar (mass suicide of women), and zina (adultery) laws .
- During the colonial period (c. 1700-1947 CE), the status of women was influenced by the British policies, the social reform movements, and the nationalist struggle. Some of the positive aspects were the abolition of sati, the legalization of widow remarriage, the promotion of female education, and the participation of women in the freedom movement, such as Rani Lakshmibai, Sarojini Naidu, and Aruna Asaf Ali. Some of the negative aspects were the exploitation, oppression, and discrimination of women by the colonial rulers, the orthodox sections of society, and the patriarchal norms .

### **Challenges faced by Women in Society in Ancient India**

- Women in ancient India had different roles and rights depending on the time period, the region, the religion, and the caste they belonged to. Generally, they faced more challenges and oppression as time went by and patriarchy became stronger.
- Some of the common challenges faced by women in ancient India were:
  - Lack of autonomy, mobility, and social freedom. Women were expected to be dependent on their fathers, husbands, or sons for their livelihood, protection, and decision-making. They were confined to the domestic sphere and had limited access to education, property, and public life.
  - Child marriage and widowhood. Women were often married off at a very young age, sometimes even before puberty, to older men. They had no say in choosing their partners and had to bear children and serve their husbands. If their husbands died, they were either forced to commit sati (self-immolation on the funeral pyre of their hus-

bands), or to live a life of misery and social ostracism as widows

- Sati, Pardha, and Devadasi systems. Sati was a practice where a widow had to sacrifice herself on the funeral pyre of her husband, either voluntarily or under coercion, to prove her loyalty and chastity. Pardha was a practice where women had to cover their faces and bodies with veils and stay indoors to avoid the gaze of men. Devadasi was a practice where young girls were dedicated to temples as servants of the gods and goddesses, and were often exploited sexually by the priests and the elites .
- Dasi, Niyog, and Polygamy. Dasi was a term used for female slaves who were captured, bought, or sold by the Aryans and other invaders. They were treated as property and had no rights or dignity. Niyog was a practice where a widow or a barren woman had to cohabit with a man other than her husband, usually a relative or a sage, to produce a son for her husband's lineage. Polygamy was a practice where a man could have more than one wife, either for political, economic, or personal reasons. Women had to share their husbands and had no voice or choice in the matter .
- Women in ancient India also had some positive aspects in their lives, such as the respect and reverence given to them as mothers, wives, and goddesses, the freedom and equality enjoyed by some women in the early Vedic period, the contributions and achievements of some women in the fields of literature, arts, religion, and politics, and the presence of some social and religious movements that advocated for women's rights and dignity . However, these aspects were overshadowed by the challenges and oppression that most women faced in ancient India.

#### Four-class Classification of Society in Ancient India

- The four-class classification of society in ancient India is also known as the **varna system** or the **caste system**.
- It is based on the division of labor and the hierarchy of social status according to the Hindu scriptures, especially the Vedas .
- The four classes are:
  - **Brahmins**: the priests, scholars, teachers, and spiritual leaders of the society. They are considered the highest and most pure class, and they perform rituals, sacrifices, and ceremonies for the gods and the people .
  - **Kshatriyas**: the rulers, warriors, administrators, and protectors of the society. They are the second highest class, and they are responsible for maintaining law and order, defending the country, and enforcing justice .
  - **Vaishyas**: the farmers, traders, merchants, artisans, and business people of the society. They are the third highest class, and they are responsible for producing and distributing goods and services, and

supporting the economy .

- **Shudras**: the laborers, servants, and workers of the society. They are the lowest and most impure class, and they are responsible for performing menial and unskilled tasks, and serving the higher classes .
- The four classes are not equal in rights, privileges, duties, or opportunities. They are determined by birth and cannot be changed by choice or merit .
- The four-class classification of society in ancient India is one of the oldest and most influential social systems in the world, and it has shaped the culture, religion, politics, and economy of India for thousands of years .

### Slavery in Society in Ancient India

- Slavery was a universal social evil and had its origin even from the early period of history. In India, its origin is closely associated with the caste system.
- The early history of slavery in India is contested because it depends on the translations of terms such as *dasa* and *dasyu*. Some scholars suggest that these terms referred to servile classes, while others argue that they denoted enemies or outsiders.
- Greek writer Megasthenes in his work *Indika*, while describing the Maurya Empire in the 4th century BCE, states that slavery was banned in Indian society.
- However, other sources indicate that slavery existed in ancient India, where it is recorded in the Sanskrit Laws of Manu of the 1st century BCE. The institution was little documented until the British colonials in the 19th century made it an object of study because of their desire to abolish it.
- Slavery system in India was very mild and most of the slaves were domestic slaves who were treated as members of the family. The Dharma Shastras of the 4th century BCE were in a protesting mood against slavery. Slave trade was prohibited in the Shastras.
- Slaves in ancient India were mainly acquired through war, debt, sale by parents, or punishment for crimes. They could be freed by their masters, or by paying a ransom, or by performing meritorious deeds.
- Slaves in ancient India had some rights and privileges, such as owning property, marrying, and practicing religion. They could also rise to high positions in society, such as ministers, generals, and rulers .
- Slavery in ancient India was not based on race or ethnicity, but on social and economic factors. There were also instances of voluntary slavery, where people offered themselves as slaves to a deity or a temple.
- Slavery in ancient India declined with the advent of Buddhism and Jainism, which preached equality and non-violence. The Gupta Empire (4th-6th century CE) also discouraged slavery and promoted the welfare of the lower classes.
- Slavery in ancient India was different from the slavery in other parts of

the world, such as Greece, Rome, or America, where slaves were treated as chattel and had no rights or dignity. Slavery in ancient India was more humane and flexible, and allowed for social mobility and emancipation.

## **Module 2- Indian Literature, Culture, Tradition, and Practices**

- Indian literature is the expression of the diverse and rich cultural heritage of India, which includes oral traditions, folklores, epics, myths, poetry, drama, and prose in various languages and scripts.
- Indian culture is the result of the fusion of various ethnic groups, religions, philosophies, and customs that have influenced the way of life in India for thousands of years. Some of the unique aspects of Indian culture are:
  - Greetings: Indians greet each other by folding their hands and saying “Namaste” or “Namaskar”, which means “I bow to the divine in you”.
  - Religious customs: India is home to many religions, such as Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism, Sikhism, Islam, Christianity, and Zoroastrianism. Each religion has its own rituals, festivals, symbols, and sacred texts that are followed by its adherents.
  - Festivals of India: India celebrates a variety of festivals throughout the year, such as Diwali, Holi, Eid, Christmas, Guru Nanak Jayanti, and Pongal. These festivals reflect the diversity, unity, and joy of the Indian people.
  - Family structure and marriage: Indians value the institution of family and respect their elders and ancestors. The family is usually patriarchal, joint, and extended, with several generations living together. Marriage is considered a sacred bond and is arranged by the parents or elders of the bride and groom.
  - Symbols: India has many symbols that represent its culture, such as the national emblem, the national flag, the national anthem, the lotus, the peacock, the swastika, the om, and the bindi.
  - Cuisine and food: Indian cuisine is known for its variety, spice, and flavor. It is influenced by the regional, religious, and climatic factors of the country. Some of the common ingredients used in Indian food are rice, wheat, lentils, spices, herbs, and dairy products. Some of the popular dishes are biryani, curry, dal, roti, dosa, idli, samosa, and chaat.
  - Traditional clothing: Indians wear different types of clothing depending on the region, religion, and occasion. Some of the common types of clothing are saree, salwar kameez, kurta, dhoti, lungi, sherwani, and turban. The colors and patterns of the clothing often have symbolic meanings and reflect the culture and identity of the wearer.
  - Dances of India: India has a rich and diverse tradition of classical, folk, and tribal dances that express the emotions, stories, and values of the people. Some of the famous classical dances are Bharatanatyam, Kathak, Kathakali, Kuchipudi, Manipuri, Mohiniy-



- attam, and Odissi. Some of the folk and tribal dances are Bhangra, Garba, Ghoomar, Bihu, and Chhau.
- Epics and mythology: India has a vast and ancient literature of epics and mythology that narrate the deeds of gods, goddesses, heroes, and villains. Some of the most well-known epics are the Ramayana, the Mahabharata, and the Puranas. These epics contain moral lessons, philosophical insights, and cultural values that are relevant to the present day.
  - Martial arts: India has a long and varied history of martial arts that have developed over the centuries for self-defense, warfare, and spiritual development. Some of the martial arts are Kalaripayattu, Gatka, Silambam, Thang-Ta, and Malla-yuddha. These martial arts involve the use of weapons, such as swords, daggers, spears, and sticks, as well as unarmed techniques, such as kicks, punches, and locks.
  - Languages: India has 22 official languages and hundreds of regional and local languages and dialects that reflect the linguistic diversity of the country. Some of the major languages are Hindi, English, Bengali, Marathi, Telugu, Tamil, Urdu, Gujarati, and Kannada. Each language has its own literature, script, and grammar that enrich the Indian culture.

### **Evolution of script in India**

- A script is a written symbolisation of speech. It is a collection of characters used to write one or more languages.
- India has a long history of writing, dating back to the Indus Valley Civilization (c. 2500-1900 BCE), which used a pictographic script that is still undeciphered.
- The earliest deciphered script of India is Brahmi, which was used to write the edicts of Emperor Ashoka (c. 3rd century BCE) and other inscriptions in various languages, such as Prakrit, Sanskrit, Pali, and Tamil.
- Brahmi is the ancestor of most modern Indian scripts, as well as the scripts of Sri Lanka, Tibet, Southeast Asia, and some parts of Central Asia.
- Brahmi evolved into different regional variants over time, depending on the cultural, linguistic, and geographical factors. Some of the major branches of Brahmi are:
  - Northern Brahmi: This includes scripts such as Kharosthi, Gandhari, Saka, Bactrian, and Kushana, which were used in the northwestern regions of India and Central Asia. These scripts were influenced by the Aramaic script of the Persian Empire and had a right-to-left direction of writing.

- Southern Brahmi: This includes scripts such as Tamil-Brahmi, Vatteluttu, Grantha, and Pallava, which were used in the southern regions of India and Sri Lanka. These scripts were influenced by the Dravidian languages and had a rounded shape due to the use of palm leaves as writing material.
  - Eastern Brahmi: This includes scripts such as Kalinga, Siddhamatrika, and Proto-Bengali, which were used in the eastern regions of India and Southeast Asia. These scripts were influenced by the Magadhi Prakrit and had a vertical stroke at the end of each character.
  - Western Brahmi: This includes scripts such as Gupta, Nagari, Sharada, and Modi, which were used in the western and central regions of India and Nepal. These scripts were influenced by the Sanskrit language and had a horizontal line at the top of each character.
- Due to the greater emphasis on quicker and easier writing rather than monumental inscriptions, some of the Brahmi scripts developed into cursive styles that formed the basis of India's modern scripts. Some of the modern scripts of India are:
    - Devanagari: This is the most widely used script in India, as it is the official script of Hindi, the most spoken language in India. It is also used to write other languages, such as Sanskrit, Marathi, Nepali, and Konkani. It is derived from the Nagari script of Western Brahmi and has a distinctive horizontal line at the top of each character.
    - Bengali-Assamese: This is the script used to write the Bengali and Assamese languages, as well as some other languages of eastern India and Bangladesh. It is derived from the Proto-Bengali script of Eastern Brahmi and has a rounded shape with a vertical stroke at the end of each character.
    - Gujarati: This is the script used to write the Gujarati language, as well as some other languages of western India and Pakistan. It is derived from the Modi script of Western Brahmi and has a cursive style with a horizontal line at the top of each character.
    - Gurmukhi: This is the script used to write the Punjabi language, as well as some other languages of northern India and Pakistan. It is derived from the Sharada script of Western Brahmi and has a horizontal line at the top of each character and a vertical line at the left of each word.
    - Kannada: This is the script used to write the Kannada language, as well as some other languages of southern India and Sri Lanka. It is derived from the Grantha script of Southern Brahmi and has a rounded shape with a horizontal line at the top of each character.
    - Malayalam: This is the script used to write the Malayalam language,

as well as some other languages of southern India and Sri Lanka. It is derived from the Vatteluttu script of Southern Brahmi and has a rounded shape with a loop at the end of each character.

- Odia: This is the script used to write the Odia language, as well as some other languages of eastern India and Bangladesh. It is derived from the Kalinga script of Eastern Brahmi and has a rounded shape with a vertical stroke at the end of each character.

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### Evolution of languages in India

- India is a multilingual country with over 780 languages spoken by its people.
- The linguistic history of India can be traced back to the prehistoric period when various language families emerged and interacted with each other.
- The major language families in India are the Indo-Aryan, the Dravidian, the Austroasiatic and the Sino-Tibetan.
- The Indo-Aryan languages are derived from the Indo-European languages that originated in Central Asia and spread to India through migrations and invasions. They are spoken by about 75% of the population and include languages such as Hindi, Bengali, Marathi, Gujarati, Punjabi, Urdu and Sanskrit.
- The Dravidian languages are native to South India and are spoken by about 20% of the population. They include languages such as Tamil, Telugu, Kannada, Malayalam and Tulu. They have a distinct grammatical structure and vocabulary from the Indo-Aryan languages and are influenced by the ancient Harappan civilization.
- The Austroasiatic languages are spoken by about 3% of the population, mostly in the eastern and central regions of India. They include languages such as Santali, Mundari, Khasi and Munda. They are related to the languages of Southeast Asia and have a rich oral tradition.
- The Sino-Tibetan languages are spoken by about 1% of the population, mostly in the northeastern and Himalayan regions of India. They include languages such as Tibetan, Nepali, Manipuri and Bodo. They are related to the languages of China and have a complex tonal system.
- The evolution of Indian languages is influenced by various factors such as geography, culture, religion, politics, trade and education. Some of the major influences are:
  - The Vedic period (1500-500 BCE) when the Sanskrit language and literature flourished and became the basis of the Indo-Aryan languages.
  - The Mauryan period (321-185 BCE) when the Prakrit languages and the Brahmi script developed and became the medium of administration and communication.
  - The Gupta period (320-550 CE) when the classical Sanskrit reached its peak and the Nagari script emerged as the precursor of the De-

vanagari script.

- The medieval period (600-1500 CE) when the regional languages and scripts evolved from the Prakrits and the Apabhramshas and were influenced by the Persian, Arabic and Turkish languages due to the Islamic invasions and rule.
  - The colonial period (1500-1947 CE) when the English language and the Roman script were introduced and became the language of education, law, trade and administration due to the British rule.
  - The post-independence period (1947-present) when the Hindi language and the Devanagari script were adopted as the official language and script of the Indian Union and the other languages were given the status of scheduled languages and regional languages.
  - The contemporary period (2000-present) when the English language and the Roman script have become the dominant language and script of the internet, media, science and technology and have influenced the other Indian languages.
- The evolution of Indian languages is a dynamic and ongoing process that reflects the diversity and unity of the Indian culture and society.

### **Harappan Script**

- Harappan script is the name given to the symbols found on the inscriptions of the Indus Valley Civilisation, which flourished in the northwest of India and Pakistan from about 2500 to 1900 BCE.
- Harappan script is also known as Indus script, as it was discovered during the excavation of Harappa, one of the major cities of the civilisation.
- Harappan script consists of about 400 signs, which vary in shape, size and orientation. Some signs are pictorial, representing animals, plants, objects or abstract concepts, while others are geometric or linear .
- Harappan script is written from right to left, sometimes with a boustrophedon (alternating direction) pattern. The inscriptions are usually very short, ranging from one to 17 signs, and are found on various objects such as seals, pottery, copper tablets, tools and jewellery .
- Harappan script has not been deciphered yet, despite many attempts by various scholars. The main challenges are the lack of bilingual inscriptions, the unknown underlying language(s), the brevity and diversity of the texts, and the absence of a clear grammatical or syntactic structure .
- Harappan script is one of the oldest known writing systems in the world, and it reflects the cultural and economic complexity of the Indus Valley Civilisation. It is also a source of mystery and fascination for historians, linguists and archaeologists.

### **Brahmi Script**

- Brahmi script is the earliest writing system developed in India after the Indus script.

- It is one of the most influential writing systems; all modern Indian scripts and several hundred scripts found in Southeast and East Asia are derived from Brahmi .
- Brahmi script appeared as a fully developed script in the third century BCE and was used for writing various languages, such as Sanskrit, Prakrit, Pali, and others .
- Brahmi script is mentioned in the ancient Indian texts of Hinduism, Jainism and Buddhism, as well as their Chinese translations. For example, the Lalitavistara Sūtra lists 64 scripts, with Brahmi script starting the list.
- Brahmi script was already divided into regional variants at the time of the earliest surviving epigraphy around the 3rd century BC. Cursive of the Brahmi script began to diversify further from around the 5th century AD and continued to give rise to new scripts throughout the Middle Ages.
- Brahmi script is thought to have been modelled on the Aramaic or Phoenician alphabets, or possibly derived from the Indus or Harappa script.
- Brahmi script consists of 33 consonants and 9 vowels, which can be combined to form syllables. Brahmi script is written from left to right and has no case distinction.
- Brahmi script has a number system that uses nine symbols for the digits 1 to 9, and a separate symbol for zero. The symbols for 10, 100, and 1000 are derived from the symbols for 2, 3, and 4 by adding a horizontal line.
- Brahmi script has various signs and marks to indicate punctuation, vowel length, nasalization, aspiration, and other features of pronunciation.
- Brahmi script is usually written on stone, metal, clay, wood, palm leaves, or birch bark.

Here is an example of Brahmi script, showing the phrase “Buddha Shakyamuni” in Sanskrit:

Brahmi script example

### The Vedas

- The Vedas are a large body of religious texts originating in ancient India.
- The Vedas are composed in Vedic Sanskrit, the oldest layer of Sanskrit literature and the oldest scriptures of Hinduism.
- The word Veda means “knowledge” in Sanskrit, and the Vedas are thought to contain the fundamental knowledge relating to the underlying cause of, function of, and personal response to existence.
- The Vedas are divided into four collections: the Rigveda, the Yajurveda, the Samaveda and the Atharvaveda.
- The Rigveda is the oldest and most important of the Vedas, containing 1,028 hymns to various gods and natural phenomena.
- The Yajurveda contains the formulas and rituals for performing sacrifices and ceremonies.
- The Samaveda consists of musical chants and melodies for the Rigvedic hymns.

- The Atharvaveda contains spells, charms, and magical incantations for various purposes.
- The Vedas have regulated the social, legal, domestic and religious customs of Hindus up to the present day.
- The Vedas are considered to be revealed by the gods to the sages, and are therefore regarded as sacred and authoritative.

### The Upanishads

- The Upanishads are ancient Hindu scriptures that explore the nature of reality, the self, and the supreme being.
- The word Upanishad means “to sit down closely”, implying the intimate dialogue between a teacher and a student.
- The Upanishads are part of the Vedas, the oldest and most authoritative Hindu texts, but they are considered the end or the essence of the Vedas (Vedanta).
- There are more than 200 Upanishads, but only 13 are considered the principal or the classical ones. They are: Isha, Kena, Katha, Prashna, Mundaka, Mandukya, Taittiriya, Aitareya, Chandogya, Brihadaranyaka, Kaushitaki, Shvetashvatara, and Maitri.
- The Upanishads date from the 8th to the 6th century BCE, but some may be later additions. They are composed in Sanskrit and use various literary forms, such as stories, dialogues, poems, and hymns.
- The main theme of the Upanishads is the identity of the individual self (atman) and the universal self (brahman). The Upanishads teach that the atman is the immortal and unchanging essence of the human being, and that brahman is the ultimate reality that pervades everything in the universe. The Upanishads assert that the realization of this identity leads to liberation (moksha) from the cycle of birth and death (samsara).
- The Upanishads also discuss various topics related to ethics, cosmology, psychology, metaphysics, and epistemology. They introduce concepts such as karma, dharma, maya, yoga, and the four stages of life (ashramas). They also present different methods of meditation, contemplation, and self-inquiry to attain the knowledge of the self and brahman.
- The Upanishads have influenced many schools of Hindu philosophy, such as Advaita Vedanta, Vishishtadvaita, Dvaita, and others. They have also inspired other religious traditions, such as Buddhism, Jainism, Sikhism, and theosophy. They are regarded as the source of wisdom and spirituality by many Hindus and seekers of truth.

The Ramayana is a Hindu epic that narrates the life and adventures of Rama, the prince of Kosala, and his wife Sita. It is one of the most influential and revered texts in Indian culture and literature. Here are some of the main points of the Ramayana:

- The Ramayana begins with the birth of Rama, who is the seventh incarnation of the god Vishnu. He is destined to defeat the demon king Ravana,

who has terrorized the world with his evil deeds .

- Rama grows up as a virtuous, wise, and powerful prince. He wins the hand of Sita, the daughter of King Janaka of Mithila, by breaking the bow of Shiva, a divine weapon that no one else could lift or string .
- Rama is exiled from his kingdom by his stepmother Kaikeyi, who wants her son Bharata to be the king instead. Rama accepts his fate and leaves with Sita and his loyal brother Lakshmana. They live in the forest for 14 years, facing many dangers and challenges .
- Ravana, who is attracted by Sita's beauty, kidnaps her and takes her to his island kingdom of Lanka. He tries to persuade her to marry him, but she remains faithful to Rama. Rama and Lakshmana search for Sita, with the help of Hanuman, the monkey king, and his army of monkeys and bears .
- Rama and his allies wage a war against Ravana and his army of demons. Rama kills Ravana with a special arrow given to him by the sage Agastya. He rescues Sita and returns to his kingdom with her. He is crowned as the king of Kosala and rules with justice and righteousness .
- The Ramayana ends with a test of Sita's purity, as some people doubt her chastity after being in Ravana's captivity. Rama asks Sita to prove her innocence by entering a fire. Sita does so and emerges unharmed, as she is protected by the fire god Agni. Rama and Sita are reunited and live happily ever after .

The Ramayana is a complex and rich story that has many versions, interpretations, and adaptations. It explores themes such as dharma (duty), karma (action and consequence), bhakti (devotion), and moksha (liberation). It also showcases the values of courage, loyalty, compassion, and wisdom. It is a source of inspiration and guidance for many Hindus and people of other faiths and cultures.

### **The Mahabharata**

- The Mahabharata is one of the two major Sanskrit epics of India, along with the Ramayana .
- It is a long and complex narrative that covers the history, culture, religion, and philosophy of ancient India.
- It tells the story of the conflict between two groups of cousins, the Kauravas and the Pandavas, who fight for the throne of Hastinapura, a kingdom in northern India .
- The main events of the Mahabharata are the Kurukshetra War, a 18-day battle that ends with the victory of the Pandavas, and the Bhagavad Gita, a dialogue between the Pandava prince Arjuna and the god Krishna, who advises him on his duty and the meaning of life.
- The Mahabharata is divided into 18 books, or parvas, that contain about 74,000 verses, making it one of the longest poems in the world.
- The Mahabharata is considered to be both a historical account of the

origins of Hinduism and a code of ethics for the followers of dharma, the moral and cosmic order .

- The Mahabharata is also a source of many stories, characters, and teachings that have influenced Indian literature, art, and culture for centuries.

### **Puranas**

- Puranas are a genre of ancient Indian literature that contain stories, legends, myths, cosmology, genealogy, and other topics related to Hinduism .
- Puranas are considered as the fifth Veda, after the four Vedas (Rig, Sama, Yajur, and Atharva), which are the primary scriptures of Hinduism.
- Puranas are written in Sanskrit verse, mostly in the form of narrative couplets, similar to the style of the epics Mahabharata and Ramayana.
- Puranas are classified into two categories: Mahapuranas (major Puranas) and Upapuranas (minor Puranas). There are 18 Mahapuranas and 18 Upapuranas, although some sources mention more or less .
- Puranas are also categorized according to the three aspects of the divine: Sattva (purity), Rajas (passion), and Tamas (ignorance). Each Purana is devoted to a specific deity or theme, such as Vishnu, Shiva, Devi, or the Sun .
- Puranas are not considered as authoritative or binding as the Vedas, but rather as supplementary and popular texts that explain and illustrate the Vedic teachings in an accessible way .
- Puranas are also sources of historical, cultural, and artistic information, as they reflect the beliefs, values, and traditions of various periods and regions of India .

### **Buddhist Literature in Pali, Prakrit and Sanskrit**

- Buddhist literature is the collection of writings that preserve the teachings and traditions of Buddhism.
- Buddhist literature can be divided into two main categories: canonical and non-canonical.
- Canonical literature refers to the scriptures that are considered authoritative and authentic by various Buddhist schools and traditions. Non-canonical literature includes commentaries, biographies, stories, poems, and other works that are not part of the official canon, but are still valued for their historical, doctrinal, or literary significance.
- The canonical literature of Buddhism is written in various languages, depending on the region and time period of its composition. The most prominent languages are Pali, Prakrit, and Sanskrit.
- Pali is an ancient language that is closely related to Sanskrit, but has some differences in grammar, vocabulary, and pronunciation. It is said that the Buddha delivered his sermons in Pali, or a dialect similar to it, and that his disciples recorded them in the same language. Pali is the canonical



language of Theravada Buddhism, the oldest and most conservative branch of Buddhism, which is mainly practiced in Sri Lanka and Southeast Asia. The Pali canon, also known as the Tipitaka or the Three Baskets, consists of three main collections: the Vinaya Pitaka (the Basket of Discipline), which contains the rules and regulations for the monastic community; the Sutta Pitaka (the Basket of Discourses), which contains the dialogues and discourses of the Buddha and his disciples; and the Abhidhamma Pitaka (the Basket of Higher Teaching), which contains the systematic analysis and exposition of the Buddhist doctrine and psychology.

- Prakrit is a generic term for any language that is derived from or influenced by Sanskrit, but is not Sanskrit itself. Prakrit languages are usually simpler and more colloquial than Sanskrit, and reflect the regional and social variations of the speakers. Prakrit languages were widely used in ancient and medieval India for literature, administration, and communication. Some of the Prakrit languages that are relevant for Buddhist literature are Sauraseni, Maharastri, Magadhi, and Gandhari. Prakrit is the canonical language of some of the early Buddhist schools, such as the Mahasanghikas, the Sarvastivadins, and the Dharmaguptakas, which are collectively known as the Hinayana or the Lesser Vehicle. The Prakrit canon, also known as the Agama or the Collection, consists of four main collections: the Dirgha Agama (the Long Collection), which contains long discourses of the Buddha; the Madhyama Agama (the Middle Collection), which contains medium-length discourses of the Buddha; the Samyukta Agama (the Connected Collection), which contains short discourses of the Buddha grouped by topic; and the Ekottara Agama (the Numerical Collection), which contains discourses of the Buddha arranged by numbers.
- Sanskrit is an ancient and classical language that is considered the language of the gods and the scholars in Hinduism. It is a highly refined and sophisticated language that has a complex grammar, a rich vocabulary, and a poetic beauty. Sanskrit is the canonical language of Mahayana Buddhism, the later and more liberal branch of Buddhism, which is mainly practiced in Tibet, China, Japan, and Korea. The Sanskrit canon, also known as the Mahayana Sutras or the Great Vehicle Sutras, consists of various texts that expound the Mahayana teachings and practices, such as the Prajnaparamita Sutras (the Perfection of Wisdom Sutras), which emphasize the concept of emptiness; the Lotus Sutra, which reveals the universal Buddhahood of all beings; the Avatamsaka Sutra (the Flower Garland Sutra), which describes the interpenetration of all phenomena; the Pure Land Sutras, which extol the virtues and merits of the Buddha Amitabha and his paradise; and the Vajrayana Sutras (the Diamond Vehicle Sutras), which introduce the esoteric and tantric methods of achieving enlightenment.

### **Jain Literature in Pali, Prakrit and Sanskrit**

- Jain literature refers to the literature of the Jain religion, which is one of the oldest and major religions of India.
- Jain literature is a vast and ancient literary tradition, which was initially transmitted orally by the teachers and disciples of Jainism.
- Jain literature is composed in various languages, such as Prakrit, Pali, Sanskrit, Apabhramsha, Hindi, Gujarati, Tamil, Kannada and Rajasthani.
- The most important and authoritative Jain texts are the canonical Jain Agamas, which are written in Ardhamagadhi, a Prakrit (Middle-Indo Aryan) language.
- The Jain Agamas consist of 12 Angas (limbs), 12 Upangas (subsidiary limbs), 6 Chhedasutras (disciplinary codes), 4 Mulasutras (root texts), 10 Prakirnas (miscellaneous texts) and 2 Culikas (appendices).
- The Jain Agamas contain the teachings of the 24 Tirthankaras (ford-makers), the spiritual leaders of Jainism, especially Mahavira, the last and most prominent Tirthankara.
- The Jain Agamas deal with various topics, such as ethics, cosmology, karma, rebirth, liberation, non-violence, asceticism, meditation, logic, epistemology and metaphysics.
- The Jain Agamas were compiled and codified in the 6th century CE in Valabhi, Gujarat, by the council of Jain monks and scholars.
- The Jain Agamas are divided into two main sects: the Digambaras (sky-clad) and the Svetambaras (white-clad), who differ in their interpretation and preservation of the texts.
- The Digambaras believe that the original Jain Agamas were lost and only some secondary texts, such as the Purvas, the Shatkhandagama and the Kasayaprabhrta, are available.
- The Svetambaras believe that they have preserved the original Jain Agamas and have also added some later texts, such as the Niryuktis, the Bhashyas, the Churnis and the Tikas, as commentaries and explanations.
- Apart from the canonical Jain Agamas, there are many other Jain texts written in Pali, Prakrit and Sanskrit, which are classified as non-canonical or extra-canonical literature.
- Some of the prominent Jain texts written in Pali are the Jaina Suttas, the Jaina Vinaya, the Jaina Abhidhamma and the Jaina Niddesa, which are similar to the Buddhist Pali Canon, but with a different perspective and emphasis.
- Some of the prominent Jain texts written in Prakrit are the Gathasaptasati, the Bhaktamara Stotra, the Samayasara, the Pravachanasara, the Niyamasara, the Pancastikayasara and the Tattvarthasutra, which are poetic, devotional, philosophical and doctrinal works.
- Some of the prominent Jain texts written in Sanskrit are the Kavyas, the Mahakavyas, the Stotras, the Subhashitas, the Natakas, the Alankaras, the Shastras and the Puranas, which are literary, artistic, scientific and historical works.

- Some of the famous Jain authors who wrote in Sanskrit are Haribhadra, Hemachandra, Siddhasena, Somadeva, Jinasena, Asadhara, Pujiyapada, Akalanka, Vidyananda and Vidyadhara.

Hello, I am Sydney, your AI assistant. I can help you with your query. Here is some information on Kautilya's Arthashastra:

### **Kautilya's Arthashastra**

- The Arthashastra is an ancient Indian treatise on politics, economics, military strategy, the function of the state, and social organization.
- It is attributed to Kautilya, also known as Chanakya, Vishnugupta, or the Indian Machiavelli, who was a professor at Taxila University and later the prime minister of the Mauryan Empire under Chandragupta Maurya.
- The Arthashastra is divided into 15 books, 150 chapters, and 180 topics, covering various aspects of statecraft, such as foreign policy, war, espionage, taxation, law, administration, trade, agriculture, mining, industry, welfare, education, and ethics.
- The Arthashastra is considered a masterpiece of political realism, pragmatism, and utilitarianism. It advocates a strong and centralized state, guided by the principle of artha (material gain or national interest), and employing any means necessary, including diplomacy, alliance, intrigue, subversion, and force, to achieve its goals.
- The Arthashastra also contains valuable insights on human nature, psychology, sociology, and economics. It discusses the role of ethics, morality, and dharma (duty or righteousness) in politics, and the balance between the four goals of life: artha, dharma, kama (pleasure), and moksha (liberation).
- The Arthashastra is one of the earliest and most influential works on political science, public administration, and economics in the world. It has influenced various rulers, thinkers, and scholars throughout history, such as Ashoka, Akbar, Shivaji, Chanakya Neeti, and Jawaharlal Nehru. It is also relevant for contemporary issues, such as governance, development, security, and globalization.

### **Famous Sanskrit Authors in India**

Sanskrit is one of the oldest and most influential languages in India. It is the language of the Vedas, the Upanishads, the Mahabharata, the Ramayana, and many other classical texts. Sanskrit literature is rich and diverse, spanning various genres and periods. Some of the famous Sanskrit authors in India are:

- **Kalidasa:** He is considered to be the greatest Sanskrit poet and dramatist, who lived in the 4th or 5th century CE. He wrote two epic poems, Kumārasambhava and Raghuvamśa, which depict the lives and deeds of the gods and kings. He also wrote three plays, Mālavikāgnimitra, Vikramorvaśīya, and Abhijñānaśākuntala, which are examples of roman-

tic comedy, tragedy, and drama respectively. His poetry is known for its beauty, elegance, and sophistication .

- **Bharavi:** He was a 6th century CE poet who wrote the *Kirātārjunīya*, an epic poem that narrates the encounter between Arjuna and Shiva in the form of a hunter. The poem is praised for its vivid descriptions, rhetorical devices, and moral lessons.
- **Bhartṛhari:** He was a 5th century CE poet and philosopher who wrote the *Śatakatrāya*, a collection of three hundred verses on love, renunciation, and wisdom. He also wrote the *Vākyapadīya*, a treatise on grammar, semantics, and logic.
- **Bhāsa:** He was a 3rd or 4th century BCE playwright who wrote thirteen plays based on the Mahabharata, the Ramayana, and other legends. His plays are known for their realism, humor, and dramatic techniques. Some of his famous plays are *Urubhaṅga*, *Pratijñāyugandharāyaṇa*, and *Svapnavāsavadattā* .
- **Bhaṭṭa Nārāyaṇa:** He was a 9th or 10th century CE poet who wrote the *Venīsaṃhāra*, a play that depicts the abduction and rescue of Draupadi by the Pandavas. The play is notable for its emotional intensity, poetic imagery, and dramatic suspense.
- **Bāṇabhaṭṭa:** He was a 7th century CE poet and biographer who wrote the *Harṣacarita*, the first historical biography in Sanskrit, which narrates the life and achievements of King Harsha. He also wrote the *Kādambarī*, a romantic novel that tells the story of two lovers who are reincarnated through several births .
- **Budhasvāmin:** He was a 4th or 5th century CE poet who wrote the *Bṛhatkathāślokaṣaṃgraha*, a condensed version of the *Bṛhatkathā*, a lost collection of stories in Sanskrit. The *Bṛhatkathāślokaṣaṃgraha* contains tales of adventure, romance, magic, and morality, and is the source of many later works of literature .

## Telugu Literature

- Telugu literature is the body of works written in the Telugu language, a Dravidian language spoken mainly in the states of Andhra Pradesh and Telangana in India.
- Telugu literature consists of various genres, such as poetry, prose, drama, folklore, and song lyrics. Some of the prominent forms of Telugu literature are *śataka*, *padya*, *kāvya*, *prabandha*, *campū*, *yakṣagāna*, *harikatha*, and *burrakatha*.
- Telugu literature has a long and rich history, dating back to at least the 11th century CE, when the poet Nannaya translated the Mahabharata into Telugu. Some of the other notable Telugu poets and writers are Tikkana, Errana, Śrīnātha, Potana, Allasani Peddana, Tenali Ramakrishna, Kshetrappa, Tyagaraja, Gurajada Apparao, Viswanatha Satyanarayana, and Sri Sri.
- Telugu literature reflects the culture, history, religion, philosophy, and

aesthetics of the Telugu people. It also influenced and was influenced by other literary traditions, such as Sanskrit, Tamil, Kannada, Urdu, Persian, and English.

- Telugu literature is recognized as one of the classical languages of India by the Government of India. It has also received several awards and honors, such as the Jnanpith Award, the Sahitya Akademi Award, and the Padma Shri.

### **Kannada Literature**

- Kannada literature is the corpus of written forms of the Kannada language, a member of the Dravidian family spoken mainly in the Indian state of Karnataka and written in the Kannada script .
- The earliest records in Kannada are inscriptions dating from the 6th century AD onward.
- The topics of Kannada literature included grammar, philosophy, prosody, rhetoric, chronicles, biography, history, drama and cuisine, as well as dictionaries and encyclopedias.
- Kannada literature can be broadly divided into three periods: classical, medieval and modern .
- The classical period (9th to 14th century) is marked by the emergence of the champu style of composition, which combines prose and verse, and the development of various literary genres such as epics, courtly poetry, didactic works and anthologies .
- Some of the prominent writers of this period are Pampa, Ranna, Ponna, Nagavarma I, Bilhana, Harihara, Raghavanka, Keshiraja, Andayya and Kumaravyasa .
- The medieval period (14th to 18th century) is characterized by the rise of the bhakti movement, which produced a large body of devotional literature in Kannada, as well as the growth of the vachana and sharana traditions, which expressed the mystical and social aspects of the Veerashaiva faith .
- Some of the notable writers of this period are Basava, Akka Mahadevi, Allama Prabhu, Harihara, Raghavendra Swami, Purandara Dasa, Kanaka Dasa, Sarvajna, Lakshmis, Ratnakaravarni and Honnali Ramayya .
- The modern period (19th century to present) is marked by the influence of Western education, literature and culture, as well as the emergence of various literary movements such as romanticism, realism, nationalism, social reform, progressive, Dalit, feminist and postmodern .
- Some of the influential writers of this period are B.M. Srikantaiah, Kuvempu, D.V. Gundappa, Masti Venkatesha Iyengar, Bendre, Shivaram Karanth, Gopalakrishna Adiga, U.R. Ananthamurthy, Girish Karnad, P. Lankesh, Tejaswi, Kambar, Chandrashekhara Kambara, U.R. Ananthamurthy, Girish Karnad, P. Lankesh, Tejaswi, Kambar, Chandrashekhara Kambara, and others .

## Malayalam Literature

Malayalam literature is the literature written in Malayalam, a South-Dravidian language spoken in the Indian state of Kerala. It has a rich and diverse history that spans over a thousand years. Some of the main features and periods of Malayalam literature are:

- The earliest known literary work in Malayalam is **Ramacharitam**, a poem composed in the late 12th or early 13th century by Cheeraman, a Chera king. It narrates the story of Rama in a simple and elegant style.
- The next phase of Malayalam literature is marked by the emergence of **Manipravalam**, a hybrid style that combines Malayalam and Sanskrit words and grammar. This style was used mainly for erotic poetry and courtly literature by poets such as Cherusseri Namboothiri, Thunchaththu Ezhuthachan, and Punam Namboothiri .
- The 16th and 17th centuries saw the development of **Pattu**, a popular song literature that used native meters and idioms. The most famous Pattu works are **Krishnagatha** by Cherusseri Namboothiri, **Ramakathapattu** by Kadungathur Narayanan Nambudiri, and **Kannasaramayanam** by Ramapurathu Warriar .
- The 18th and 19th centuries witnessed the rise of **modern Malayalam literature**, influenced by Western education, journalism, and social reform movements. The pioneers of this period include **Kerala Varma Valiya Koil Thampuran**, who translated Kalidasa's works into Malayalam, **Kumaran Asan**, who wrote revolutionary poems on social issues, **Vallathol Narayana Menon**, who revived the classical art form of Kathakali through his lyrics, and **Ulloor S. Parameswara Iyer**, who enriched Malayalam poetry with his historical and cultural themes .
- The 20th and 21st centuries have seen the flourishing of **contemporary Malayalam literature**, characterized by diversity, experimentation, and global awareness. Some of the prominent writers of this period include **Basheer**, who introduced realism and humor into Malayalam fiction, **Thakazhi Sivasankara Pillai**, who depicted the lives of the oppressed and marginalized, **M. T. Vasudevan Nair**, who explored the human psyche and the Malayali identity, **O. V. Vijayan**, who blended fantasy and satire in his novels, **Kamala Das**, who expressed her feminine sensibility and sexuality in her poems and memoirs, and **M. Mukundan**, who portrayed the social and political changes in Kerala .

Malayalam literature is a rich and vibrant field of expression that reflects the culture, history, and aspirations of the Malayali people. It has also contributed to the national and global literary scene with its originality, diversity, and excellence.

### **Sangama Literature in India**

- Sangama literature is the earliest known literature in the Tamil language, composed between the 1st and 4th centuries CE by poets belonging to three literary academies (sangams) in Madurai, India .
- Sangama literature consists of 18 works, including eight anthologies of poems (Ettuthokai) and ten long poems (Pattuppattu), as well as commentaries and grammatical treatises .
- Sangama literature is broadly classified into two categories: akam (inner) and puram (outer). Akam poetry deals with themes of love, eroticism, and emotions, while puram poetry deals with themes of heroism, war, and public life.
- Sangama literature is notable for its realistic portrayal of human experiences, its rich imagery and symbolism, its use of natural landscapes (tinai) to convey different moods and situations, and its contribution to the development of Tamil culture and identity .
- Sangama literature is a valuable source of information about the history, society, religion, art, and literature of ancient Tamil Nadu and South India .

### **Northern Indian languages**

- Northern Indian languages are mainly from the Indo-Aryan branch of the Indo-European language family.
- They include the Hindustani lingua franca, which has two standard forms: Hindi and Urdu. Hindi is the official language of India, while Urdu is the official language of Pakistan and some Indian states. Both languages share a common grammar and vocabulary, but differ in their scripts and some cultural words.
- Other major Northern Indian languages are Punjabi, Kashmiri, Pahari, and Bihari. Punjabi is spoken in Punjab, a state in India and a province in Pakistan. It has two scripts: Gurmukhi and Shahmukhi. Kashmiri is spoken in the Kashmir Valley, a disputed region between India and Pakistan. It has three scripts: Perso-Arabic, Devanagari, and Sharada. Pahari is a group of languages spoken in the Himalayan foothills of India, Nepal, and Pakistan. Bihari is a group of languages spoken in Bihar, a state in India, and neighboring regions. The most prominent Bihari languages are Bhojpuri, Magadhi, and Maithili .
- Northern Indian languages have evolved from the ancient Sanskrit language, which was the language of the Vedic civilization and the classical literature of India. They have also been influenced by various foreign languages, such as Persian, Arabic, Turkish, English, and Portuguese, due to historical contacts and invasions .
- Northern Indian languages have rich and diverse literary traditions, ranging from poetry, drama, fiction, and folklore to religious, philosophical, and scientific texts. Some of the famous writers and poets in North-

ern Indian languages are Kabir, Mirza Ghalib, Premchand, Rabindranath Tagore, Amrita Pritam, and Mahadevi Varma .

### **North Indian Literature**

- North Indian literature is the literature produced in the languages of northern India, such as Hindi, Urdu, Punjabi, Kashmiri, Rajasthani, etc.
- North Indian literature is influenced by the ancient Indian background, which includes Sanskrit epics, Puranas, and Buddhist and Jain texts.
- North Indian literature also reflects the diversity of cultures, religions, and ethnicities in the region, such as the Mughal, Sikh, and British influences.
- Some of the prominent genres of North Indian literature are poetry, drama, novel, short story, essay, and autobiography.
- Some of the notable authors of North Indian literature are Kabir, Tulsidas, Mirza Ghalib, Premchand, Rabindranath Tagore, Amrita Pritam, Munshi Premchand, Bhisham Sahni, etc.
- North Indian literature is distinct from the literature of Northeast India, which is the literature produced in the states of Assam, Arunachal Pradesh, Manipur, Meghalaya, Mizoram, Nagaland, Sikkim, and Tripura.
- Northeast Indian literature is characterized by its rich cultural and ethno-linguistic diversity, as well as its representation of varied histories, socio-political issues, and environmental concerns.
- Some of the genres of Northeast Indian literature are folk literature, oral literature, poetry, fiction, non-fiction, and translation.
- Some of the notable authors of Northeast Indian literature are Birendra Kumar Bhattacharya, Mamang Dai, Tamsula Ao, Easterine Kire, Mitra Phukan, etc.

### **Persian Literature in India**

- Persian literature is the literary expression of the Persian language and culture, which originated in Iran and spread to other regions of the Persianate world, including India.
- Persian literature in India began with the rise of Persian-speaking people to the throne of the Delhi Sultanate in the 13th century, which resulted in the spread of the Persian language as the official and literary language of India.
- Persian literature in India reached its peak under the Mughal Empire, which ruled most of India from the 16th to the 18th century. The Mughal emperors and nobles patronized Persian poets, historians, and scholars, who produced works of high quality and diversity.
- Persian literature in India reflects the thought, social structure, culture, and political institutions of the medieval period, as well as the spirit of the age. Persian literary sources provide valuable insights into the history, religion, art, and science of India.
- Persian literature in India covers various genres, such as poetry, prose,



history, biography, mysticism, and romance. Some of the most prominent Persian writers in India are Amir Khusrow, Abdur Rahim Khan-i-Khanan, Abul Fazl, Faizi, Nizamuddin Auliya, and Mirza Ghalib .

- Persian literature in India also influenced the literatures of other languages, such as Urdu, Hindi, Bengali, and Punjabi. Many Persian words, phrases, and literary devices were adopted and adapted by these languages.
- Persian literature in India declined in the 19th century, due to the rise of British colonialism and the emergence of modern Indian languages. However, Persian literature in India still remains a rich and diverse legacy of the Persianate culture in the Indian subcontinent.

### Urdu Literature in India

- Urdu literature is the literature written in the Urdu language, which is spoken by the Muslims of Pakistan and northern India .
- Urdu literature is influenced by the Persian, Arabic, and Turkish languages, as well as the local languages of the Indian subcontinent, such as Hindi, Punjabi, Sindhi, and Gujarati.
- Urdu literature is mainly composed of poetry, especially the verse forms of the ghazal and the nazm, but it also includes prose genres such as the short story, the novel, the biography, the autobiography, the travelogue, and the essay.
- Urdu literature emerged in the 13th century, when the Delhi Sultanate was established by the Turkish and Afghan invaders, who brought the Persian language and culture to India.
- The earliest examples of Urdu poetry are the verses of Amir Khusrow (1253-1325), who is considered the father of Urdu literature. He wrote in both Persian and Hindavi, a precursor of Urdu, and introduced many Persian poetic forms and themes to India.
- The golden age of Urdu literature was the 18th and 19th centuries, when the Mughal Empire declined and the British colonial rule began. This period saw the development of the Urdu ghazal, a lyrical poem of love and longing, by poets such as Mir Taqi Mir (1723-1810), Mirza Ghalib (1797-1869), and Mirza Asadullah Khan Ghalib (1797-1869).
- The Urdu nazm, a more modern and free verse form of poetry, emerged in the 20th century, influenced by the Western literary movements and the social and political changes in India. Some of the prominent nazm poets are Muhammad Iqbal (1877-1938), Faiz Ahmad Faiz (1911-1984), and Ahmad Faraz (1931-2008).
- The Urdu short story, or afsana, also flourished in the 20th century, as a medium of expressing the realities and challenges of the Indian society, especially the Muslim community. Some of the famous afsana writers are Munshi Premchand (1880-1936), Saadat Hasan Manto (1912-1955), Ismat Chughtai (1915-1991), and Qurratulain Hyder (1927-2007).
- The Urdu novel, or afsana-e-muqaddas, is a relatively recent genre, which emerged in the late 19th and early 20th centuries, influenced by the En-

glish and European novels. Some of the notable Urdu novelists are Abdul Halim Sharar (1860-1926), Ratan Nath Sarshar (1846-1902), Qazi Abdul Ghaffar (1862-1956), and Razia Butt (1924-2012).

- Urdu literature is a rich and diverse tradition, which reflects the history, culture, and identity of the Indian Muslims, as well as their interactions and influences with other communities and regions .

Hello, I am Sydney, your AI assistant. I can help you with your query on Hindi literature. Here is some information that you might find useful:

### **Hindi Literature**

- Hindi literature is the literature written in the various Hindi languages, which have writing systems. Hindi is one of the official languages of India and the most widely spoken language in the country.
- Hindi literature has a long and rich history, dating back to the 11th century. It has been influenced by various literary traditions, such as Sanskrit, Prakrit, Pali, Persian, Arabic, Urdu, and English.
- Hindi literature can be divided into three broad styles: prose (gadya), poetry (padya), and prosimetrum (campū). Prose includes genres such as novels, short stories, essays, biographies, and travelogues. Poetry includes genres such as epics, lyrics, ballads, and bhakti (devotional) poems. Prosimetrum is a mixed form of prose and poetry, often used for satire, humor, and allegory.
- Hindi literature can also be classified into four major periods: Adikal (early period), Bhaktikal (devotional period), Ritikal (classical period), and Adhunik (modern period). Each period has its own characteristics, themes, and forms of expression.
- Some of the prominent writers and works of Hindi literature are:
  - Adikal: Chand Bardai (Prithviraj Raso), Jayasi (Padmavat), Kabir (Dohas), Tulsidas (Ramcharitmanas), Surdas (Sur Sagar), etc.
  - Bhaktikal: Ramananda, Meera, Nanak, Ravidas, etc.
  - Ritikal: Keshavdas (Rasikpriya), Bihari (Bihari Satsai), Ghananand (Ghananand Granthavali), etc.
  - Adhunik: Premchand (Godan, Nirmala, etc.), Mahadevi Varma (Yama, etc.), Jaishankar Prasad (Kamayani, etc.), Suryakant Tripathi 'Nirala' (Parimal, etc.), Harivansh Rai Bachchan (Madhushala, etc.), etc.
- Hindi literature reflects the diverse and dynamic aspects of Indian culture, society, history, and politics. It also showcases the creativity and innovation of the Hindi language and its speakers. Hindi literature is a valuable source of knowledge and inspiration for anyone interested in learning more about India and its people.

### Module 3- Indian Religion, Philosophy, and Practices

- India is a diverse and pluralistic country with many religions, philosophies, and practices that have influenced its culture, society, and history.
- The major religions in India are Hinduism, Islam, Christianity, Sikhism, Buddhism, and Jainism. Each of these religions has its own scriptures, doctrines, rituals, ethics, and traditions.
- Hinduism is the oldest and most dominant religion in India, with about 80% of the population identifying as Hindus. Hinduism is not a single creed, but a collection of various schools of thought, sects, and movements that share some common beliefs and practices, such as the concepts of karma, dharma, reincarnation, and moksha (liberation).
- Hinduism has a rich and diverse philosophical tradition, with six orthodox schools of thought (darshanas) that accept the authority of the Vedas (ancient scriptures) and six heterodox schools that reject the Vedas. The six orthodox schools are Nyaya (logic), Vaisheshika (atomism), Samkhya (dualism), Yoga (discipline), Mimamsa (ritual exegesis), and Vedanta (metaphysics). The six heterodox schools are Charvaka (materialism), Jainism (non-violence), Buddhism (enlightenment), Ajivika (fatalism), Lokayata (empiricism), and Ajnana (agnosticism).
- Hinduism also has a variety of religious practices, such as worship (puja), pilgrimage (tirtha), festivals (utsava), fasting (vrata), and ethical codes (dharma shastra). Hinduism also recognizes the diversity of paths to salvation (marga), such as the path of action (karma marga), the path of devotion (bhakti marga), and the path of knowledge (jnana marga).
- Islam is the second largest religion in India, with about 14% of the population identifying as Muslims. Islam is a monotheistic religion that follows the teachings of the Quran (the holy book) and the Sunnah (the example of the Prophet Muhammad). Islam has five pillars of faith: the declaration of faith (shahada), the daily prayers (salat), the alms-giving (zakat), the fasting during Ramadan (sawm), and the pilgrimage to Mecca (hajj).
- Islam has two major sects: Sunni and Shia, which differ on the issue of succession after the death of the Prophet Muhammad. Sunni Muslims follow the consensus of the community (ijma) and the analogy of the Quran and the Sunnah (qiyas) as sources of law and guidance. Shia Muslims follow the teachings of the imams (the descendants of the Prophet's son-in-law Ali) as sources of authority and inspiration.
- Islam also has various schools of thought (madhabs) that differ on the interpretation of the Quran and the Sunnah, such as the Hanafi, Maliki, Shafi'i, and Hanbali schools of Sunni Islam, and the Twelver, Ismaili, and Zaydi schools of Shia Islam. Islam also has various mystical and reformist movements, such as Sufism, Wahhabism, and Ahmadiyya.
- Christianity is the third largest religion in India, with about 2.3% of the population identifying as Christians. Christianity is a monotheistic religion that follows the teachings of Jesus Christ (the Son of God) and the Bible (the holy book). Christianity has three major branches: Catholi-

cism, Orthodoxy, and Protestantism, which differ on the issues of papal authority, the nature of Christ, and the role of tradition.

- Christianity also has various denominations, such as Anglican, Baptist, Lutheran, Methodist, Pentecostal, and Presbyterian, that differ on the issues of church governance, sacraments, and doctrine. Christianity also has various movements, such as Evangelicalism, Charismatic, and Ecumenical, that emphasize different aspects of the Christian faith, such as personal conversion, spiritual gifts, and social justice.
- Sikhism is the fourth largest religion in India, with about 1.7% of the population identifying as Sikhs. Sikhism is a monotheistic religion that follows the teachings of the Guru Granth Sahib (the holy book) and the ten human gurus (the spiritual leaders). Sikhism has five articles of faith: the uncut hair (kesh), the wooden comb (kanga), the steel bracelet (kara), the

### **Pre-Vedic Religion in India**

- Pre-Vedic religion refers to the religious beliefs and practices of the people who lived in the Indian subcontinent before the arrival of the Indo-Aryan speakers around 1500 BCE.
- Pre-Vedic religion is not well documented, but some evidence can be found in the archaeological remains of the Indus Valley Civilization (IVC), the rock paintings of Bhimbetka, and the oral traditions of the Dravidian and Munda peoples.
- The IVC was a highly urbanized and sophisticated culture that flourished from 2500 to 1900 BCE in the Indus river basin. It had a complex social structure, a writing system, and a variety of religious symbols and rituals.
- Some of the religious features of the IVC include:
  - The worship of a mother goddess, who may have represented fertility, nature, or the earth.
  - The worship of a horned deity, who may have been associated with animals, agriculture, or the underworld.
  - The worship of a phallic symbol, which may have represented male potency, creation, or the cosmic pillar.
  - The worship of fire, water, and trees, which may have been seen as sources of life and purification.
  - The practice of ritual bathing, yoga, and meditation, which may have been aimed at achieving spiritual enlightenment or harmony.
  - The use of seals, amulets, and figurines, which may have served as talismans, offerings, or representations of deities.
- The rock paintings of Bhimbetka are among the oldest surviving art forms in India, dating back to 30,000 BCE or older. They depict scenes of hunting, dancing, fighting, and animal motifs, suggesting a close connection between humans and nature.
- The rock paintings may also reflect some aspects of pre-Vedic religion, such as:

- The worship of animal spirits, who may have been seen as guardians, ancestors, or totems.
- The worship of natural forces, such as the sun, the moon, the stars, and the rain, who may have been seen as gods or goddesses.
- The worship of shamanic figures, who may have been seen as mediators between the human and the spirit worlds.
- The practice of magic, sorcery, and healing, which may have been based on the belief in the power of words, symbols, and rituals.
- The Dravidian and Munda peoples are the indigenous inhabitants of India, who have preserved their languages, cultures, and traditions despite the influence of the Indo-Aryan and later invaders. They have a rich and diverse oral literature, which includes myths, legends, folktales, and songs.
- The Dravidian and Munda religions are also pre-Vedic in origin, and have some common features, such as:
  - The worship of a supreme being, who is often seen as the creator, the sustainer, and the destroyer of the universe.
  - The worship of a multitude of gods and goddesses, who are often associated with natural phenomena, localities, or human activities.
  - The worship of ancestral spirits, who are often seen as the protectors, the guides, and the benefactors of the living.
  - The worship of nature spirits, who are often seen as the controllers, the helpers, and the challengers of humans.
  - The practice of sacrifice, offering, and prayer, which are often aimed at appeasing, honoring, or requesting the favor of the deities and the spirits.
  - The practice of divination, prophecy, and astrology, which are often based on the belief in the signs, the omens, and the cycles of nature.

### **Vedic Religion in India**

- Vedic religion was the religion of the ancient Indo-European-speaking peoples who entered India about 1500 BCE from the region of present-day Iran.
- It takes its name from the collections of sacred texts known as the Vedas, which are the oldest stratum of religious activity in India for which there exist written materials.
- The Vedas consist of four collections of hymns, rituals, and philosophical speculations: the Rigveda, the Yajurveda, the Samaveda, and the Atharvaveda.
- The Vedic religion was based on the worship of a variety of gods, such as Indra, Agni, Soma, Varuna, and Mitra, who were invoked through sacrificial offerings and prayers.
- The Vedic religion also involved the performance of rites of passage, such as initiation, marriage, and funeral, as well as the practice of asceticism and meditation by some sages.
- The Vedic religion was influenced by the indigenous cultures of the Indus

Valley and the Dravidian-speaking peoples of south India, as well as by other foreign contacts, such as the Persians and the Greeks.

- The Vedic religion gradually evolved into the more complex and diverse forms of Hinduism, which incorporated new gods, sects, scriptures, and philosophical schools.
- The Vedic religion is considered to be the historical foundation of Hinduism, as well as a source of inspiration for other Indian religions, such as Buddhism and Jainism.

### **Buddhism in India**

- Buddhism is an ancient Indian religion that originated in the 6th century BCE in the region of Magadha (now Bihar) and spread throughout northern India and beyond.
- Buddhism is based on the teachings and life experiences of Siddhartha Gautama, also known as the Buddha (the awakened one), who attained enlightenment under a bodhi tree and taught the four noble truths and the eightfold path to end suffering and achieve nirvana.
- Buddhism has two main branches: Theravada, which follows the Pali canon and emphasizes the monastic life and personal liberation; and Mahayana, which incorporates the Sanskrit scriptures and emphasizes the bodhisattva ideal and universal salvation.
- Buddhism flourished in India for over a thousand years, reaching its peak during the reigns of Ashoka (3rd century BCE), who patronized and propagated the religion throughout his empire and beyond, and Harsha (7th century CE), who supported the Nalanda university and the Buddhist pilgrims.
- Buddhism also interacted with other Indian religions, such as Hinduism and Jainism, and influenced their doctrines, practices, and art forms. Buddhism also absorbed elements from the local cultures and traditions of the regions where it spread, such as Tibet, China, Japan, and Southeast Asia.
- Buddhism declined in India from the 8th century CE onwards, due to various factors, such as the Islamic invasions, the revival of Hinduism, the corruption and degeneration of the monastic institutions, and the loss of royal patronage and popular support.
- Buddhism survived in some pockets of India, such as Ladakh, Sikkim, Arunachal Pradesh, and the Himalayan regions, where it was preserved by the Tibetan and Nepalese traditions. Buddhism also experienced a revival in the 20th century, especially among the Dalits and other marginalized groups, who embraced it as a means of social emancipation and empowerment.
- Buddhism is one of the recognized religions of India, and has a significant presence and influence in the country. India is also the host of many important Buddhist sites, such as Bodhi Gaya, Sarnath, Kushinagar, and Ajanta and Ellora caves, which attract pilgrims and tourists from all over the world. India is also the home of the Dalai Lama, the spiritual leader

of Tibetan Buddhism, who resides in Dharamsala.

### **Jainism in India**

- Jainism is an ancient Indian religion that teaches the path to spiritual purity and enlightenment through nonviolence and reducing harm to all living beings .
- Jainism originated in India at least 2,500 years ago and is one of the three oldest religions of India, along with Hinduism and Buddhism .
- The spiritual goal of Jainism is to achieve moksha, an all-knowing state of liberation from the cycle of rebirth, by following the three jewels of right faith, right knowledge and right conduct .
- Jains believe in the existence of eternal souls (jivas) and non-living substances (ajivas) that make up the universe, and that karma is a material substance that binds the soul to the cycle of rebirth .
- Jains follow the teachings of 24 spiritual leaders called tirthankaras, who attained moksha and revealed the truth of Jainism. The last and most recent tirthankara was Mahavira, who lived in the 6th century BCE .
- Jains practice five main ethical principles: ahimsa (nonviolence), satya (truthfulness), asteya (non-stealing), brahmacharya (celibacy or chastity) and aparigraha (non-attachment or non-possessiveness) .
- Jains are divided into two major sects: Digambara (sky-clad) and Svetambara (white-clad), based on their differences in doctrine, practice and tradition. The Digambaras believe that nudity is a requirement for moksha, while the Svetambaras do not. The Svetambaras also accept women and texts that the Digambaras reject .
- Jains are a small but influential minority in India, constituting about 0.4% of the population, or about 4.5 million people. They are mostly concentrated in the states of Gujarat, Maharashtra, Rajasthan and Karnataka .
- Jains are the most educated and affluent religious group in India, with high levels of literacy, urbanization, gender equality and social mobility. They are also the only religious group in India where a majority identify as members of a higher caste .
- Jains have contributed significantly to the fields of philosophy, literature, art, architecture, science, trade, politics and social reform in India. Some of the notable Jain figures in Indian history include Chandragupta Maurya, Ashoka, Harshavardhana, Hemachandra, Akbar, Mahatma Gandhi and Vallabhbhai Patel .

### **Six System Indian Philosophy**

The six systems of Indian philosophy are:

- **Nyaya:** A school that deals with logic and epistemology. It was founded by Akshapada Gautama in the 2nd century BCE. It proposes four sources

of valid knowledge: perception, inference, comparison, and testimony. It also analyzes the nature of arguments, fallacies, and proofs .

- **Vaisheshika:** A school that explains the nature of reality in terms of atoms and their combinations. It was founded by Kanada Kashyapa in the 6th century BCE. It proposes six categories of existence: substance, quality, action, generality, particularity, and inherence. It also discusses the concepts of causation, liberation, and ethics .
- **Samkhya:** A school that provides a dualistic framework of purusha (consciousness) and prakriti (matter). It was founded by Kapila in the 6th century BCE. It enumerates 25 principles of reality, including the three gunas (qualities) of sattva (goodness), rajas (activity), and tamas (inertia). It also explains the process of evolution, bondage, and liberation of the purushas .
- **Yoga:** A school that prescribes a practical method of attaining liberation through physical and mental discipline. It was founded by Patanjali in the 2nd century BCE. It is based on the Samkhya philosophy, but adds the concept of Ishvara (God) as the supreme purusha. It outlines eight limbs of yoga: yama (restraints), niyama (observances), asana (postures), pranayama (breath control), pratyahara (withdrawal of senses), dharana (concentration), dhyana (meditation), and samadhi (absorption) .
- **Purva Mimamsa:** A school that focuses on the interpretation and application of the Vedas, the sacred scriptures of Hinduism. It was founded by Jaimini in the 3rd century BCE. It advocates the performance of rituals and duties as the means of attaining happiness and heaven. It also analyzes the nature of language, meaning, and authority .
- **Uttara Mimamsa or Vedanta:** A school that expounds the philosophical essence of the Upanishads, the concluding part of the Vedas. It was founded by Badarayana in the 4th century BCE. It proposes various theories of the relationship between Brahman (the supreme reality), Atman (the individual self), and the world. It also discusses the concepts of maya (illusion), karma (action), and moksha (liberation) .

These are the six systems of Indian philosophy. They represent different perspectives and approaches to understanding the truth. They also influenced each other and other schools of thought in India and beyond.

### Shankaracharya and Advaita Vedanta

- Shankaracharya, also known as Adi Shankara, was an Indian philosopher and theologian who expounded the doctrine of Advaita Vedanta, the non-dualistic school of Hindu philosophy .
- He was born in the 8th century CE in Kaladi, a village in Kerala, and renounced the worldly pleasures at a very young age to pursue spiritual knowledge.
- He traveled across India, debating and defeating various schools of thought, such as Buddhism, Jainism, Mimamsa, Nyaya, Vaisheshika, and Samkhya,



and establishing the supremacy of Advaita Vedanta .

- He also wrote commentaries on the Upanishads, the Brahma Sutras, and the Bhagavad Gita, explaining the basic ideas of Advaita Vedanta and reconciling the apparent contradictions in the scriptures .
- He established four mathas (monasteries) in the four corners of India, namely Sringeri in the south, Dwarka in the west, Puri in the east, and Badrinath in the north, and appointed four disciples as the heads of these mathas .
- He also composed many hymns and verses in praise of various deities, such as Shiva, Vishnu, Devi, and Ganesha, and advocated the practice of devotion (bhakti) along with knowledge (jnana) as a means of liberation (moksha) .
- He is regarded as the most authoritative philosopher of Advaita Vedanta and one of the greatest thinkers of Indian history .
- Advaita Vedanta is the school of Hindu philosophy that asserts the non-duality of reality, meaning that there is only one ultimate reality, called Brahman, which is identical with the innermost self (atman) of all beings.
- Advaita Vedanta holds that the phenomenal world of multiplicity and diversity is an illusion (maya) caused by ignorance (avidya) of the true nature of reality.
- Advaita Vedanta teaches that the goal of human life is to realize one's identity with Brahman and attain liberation from the cycle of birth and death (samsara).
- Advaita Vedanta traces its origins to the Upanishads, the ancient philosophical texts that form the core of the Vedas, the sacred scriptures of Hinduism.
- Advaita Vedanta was systematized and defended by Shankaracharya and his followers, who wrote commentaries and sub-commentaries on the Upanishads, the Brahma Sutras, and the Bhagavad Gita, the three foundational texts of Vedanta .
- Advaita Vedanta has influenced various aspects of Indian culture, such as art, literature, music, ethics, and spirituality, and has also attracted the attention of Western scholars and seekers.
- Advaita Vedanta's cultural influence started only centuries after Shankaracharya, in the Vijayanagara Empire in the 14th century, when Sringeri matha started to receive patronage from the kings of the Vijayanagara Empire and became a powerful institution.

### **Various Philosophical Doctrines in India**

- Indian philosophy refers to the systems of thought and reflection that were developed by the civilizations of the Indian subcontinent.
- Indian philosophy is characterized by its diversity, continuity, synthesis, and spiritual orientation .
- Indian philosophy accepts the authority of ancient philosophers and innovations are represented as extensions of older systems of thought.

- Indian philosophy shares many concepts such as dharma, karma, samsara, dukkha, renunciation, meditation, with almost all of them focusing on the ultimate goal of liberation of the individual from dukkha and samsara through diverse range of spiritual practices (moksha, nirvana) .
- Indian philosophy can be broadly classified into two categories: orthodox (astika) and unorthodox (nastika) .
- Orthodox schools accept the authority of the Vedas, the ancient scriptures of Hinduism, while unorthodox schools reject or question the Vedas .
- The six orthodox schools of Indian philosophy are: Sāṃkhya, Yoga, Nyāya, Vaisheshika, Purva-Mimamsa, and Vedanta .
- Sāṃkhya is a philosophical tradition which regards the universe as consisting of two independent realities: puruṣa (the self or soul) and prakṛti (the material nature).
- Yoga is a school similar to Sāṃkhya (or perhaps even a branch of it) which accepts a personal god and focuses on yogic practices for attaining liberation.
- Nyāya is a school of logic and epistemology which analyzes the sources and validity of knowledge and inference.
- Vaisheshika is a school of atomism and naturalism which postulates that the universe is composed of six categories of substances: substance, quality, action, generality, particularity, and inherence.
- Purva-Mimamsa (or Mimamsa) is a school of exegesis and ritual which interprets the Vedas and prescribes the performance of sacrifices and duties for attaining heaven and liberation.
- Vedanta is a school of metaphysics and theology which expounds the teachings of the Upanishads, the philosophical portions of the Vedas, and develops various systems of monism, dualism, and qualified monism.
- The three unorthodox schools of Indian philosophy are: Buddhism, Jainism, and Cārvāka .
- Buddhism is a religion and philosophy founded by Siddhartha Gautama (the Buddha) which teaches the four noble truths, the eightfold path, and the doctrine of dependent origination.
- Jainism is a religion and philosophy founded by Mahavira (the Jina) which teaches the principles of non-violence, non-absolutism, and non-possessiveness, and the doctrine of multiple viewpoints.
- Cārvāka is a school of materialism and skepticism which denies the existence of anything beyond the four elements of earth, water, fire, and air, and rejects the notions of soul, karma, and liberation.

### Heterodox Sects in India

Heterodox sects are those that do not accept the authority of the Vedas, the sacred scriptures of Hinduism. They emerged in the 6th century BCE as a reaction to the ritualistic and hierarchical Vedic religion. They challenged the caste system, the sacrificial rites, and the metaphysical doctrines of the Brahmins, the priestly class. They advocated alternative paths of salvation, such as

asceticism, meditation, and ethical conduct. Some of them also developed new philosophical systems and cosmologies.

Some of the major heterodox sects in India are:

- **Jainism:** Founded by Mahavira, the 24th Tirthankara or spiritual teacher, Jainism teaches the doctrine of ahimsa or non-violence towards all living beings. It also emphasizes the concepts of anekantavada or multiplicity of viewpoints, syadvada or conditional truth, and aparigraha or non-attachment. Jains believe in the existence of soul and karma, but reject the idea of a creator god. They practice strict asceticism and follow five vows: non-violence, truthfulness, non-stealing, celibacy, and non-possession.
- **Buddhism:** Founded by Siddhartha Gautama, the Buddha or the enlightened one, Buddhism teaches the four noble truths: the truth of suffering, the truth of the cause of suffering, the truth of the end of suffering, and the truth of the path that leads to the end of suffering. The path consists of the eightfold path: right view, right intention, right speech, right action, right livelihood, right effort, right mindfulness, and right concentration. Buddhists believe in the concepts of rebirth, karma, and nirvana, but reject the idea of a permanent soul or self. They practice meditation and follow the five precepts: abstaining from killing, stealing, lying, sexual misconduct, and intoxication.
- **Ajivika:** Founded by Makkhali Gosala, a contemporary of Mahavira and Buddha, Ajivika teaches the doctrine of niyati or determinism, which holds that everything is predetermined by fate and nothing can be changed by human effort or will. It also teaches the concepts of antarabhava or intermediate state, jati or birth, and samsara or cycle of rebirth. Ajivikas believe in the existence of soul and karma, but reject the idea of free will or moral responsibility. They practice extreme asceticism and follow the twelve vows: abstaining from killing, stealing, lying, sexual activity, eating after noon, eating more than once a day, eating from a bowl, eating cooked food, eating animal products, wearing clothes, using perfumes, and sleeping on a bed.

### Bhakti Movement in India

- The Bhakti movement was a significant religious movement in medieval Hinduism that sought to bring religious reforms to all strata of society by adopting the method of devotion to achieve salvation.
- The movement preached against the caste system, ritualism, idolatry, and social inequalities, and emphasized the personal and emotional relationship between the devotee and the deity .
- The movement originated in South India in the 7th-8th centuries CE with the Alvars (Vaishnavite saints) and the Nayanars (Shaivite saints), who composed devotional hymns in Tamil and visited various sacred shrines .
- The movement spread to North India in the 12th-13th centuries CE with the Bhakti saints such as Ramananda, Kabir, Nanak, Tulsidas, Surdas,

Mirabai, and Chaitanya, who propagated their teachings in the vernacular languages such as Hindi, Punjabi, Bengali, and Marathi .

- The movement also influenced the development of Sikhism, a monotheistic religion founded by Guru Nanak in the 15th century CE, which incorporated elements of both Hinduism and Islam .
- The impact of the Bhakti movement on Indian society was profound and lasting. It challenged the authority of the Brahmins and the orthodox rituals, and promoted the equality and dignity of all human beings regardless of their caste, gender, or creed .
- It also enriched the literature, music, art, and culture of India, as the Bhakti poets and singers expressed their love and devotion to God in various forms and styles, such as bhajans, kirtans, dohas, padas, and ragas .
- The Bhakti movement was a major force in the spiritual and social transformation of India, and it continues to inspire millions of people across the world with its message of universal love and harmony .

### **Sufi movement in India**

- Sufism is a mystical branch of Islam that emphasizes the direct experience of God through love, devotion, and ethical conduct.
- Sufism originated in the Middle East and Central Asia in the early centuries of Islam, and spread to India through the travels and teachings of Sufi saints or sheikhs.
- The Sufi movement in India began in the 13th century and reached its peak in the 15th and 16th centuries under the Delhi Sultanate and the Mughal Empire.
- The Sufi movement was a socio-religious movement that aimed to reform the society and promote harmony among different religious groups.
- The Sufi movement was influenced by the Vedantic philosophy and Buddhism of India, and also incorporated elements of Hinduism and Sikhism in its practices and beliefs.
- The Sufi movement was organized into various orders or silsilas, each with its own founder, lineage, doctrine, and rituals. Some of the prominent silsilas in India were Chishti, Suhrawardi, Qadiri, Naqshbandi, and Shattari.
- The Sufi saints preached the message of love, tolerance, service, and equality, and attracted followers from all walks of life, including Hindus, Muslims, Sikhs, and others.
- The Sufi saints also composed poetry, music, and literature in various languages, such as Persian, Arabic, Urdu, Hindi, and Punjabi, and enriched the cultural heritage of India.
- The Sufi movement had a significant impact on the social, religious, and political history of India. It challenged the orthodoxy and rigidity of the Islamic law and the Hindu caste system, and fostered a spirit of syncretism and pluralism in the Indian society.
- The Sufi movement also contributed to the spread of Islam in India, espe-

cially in the rural areas, by adapting to the local customs and traditions, and by providing spiritual guidance and social welfare to the masses.

- The Sufi movement faced opposition and persecution from some of the orthodox Muslim rulers and clerics, who considered it as heretical and deviant. The Sufi movement also declined in the 18th and 19th centuries due to the rise of the British colonialism and the modernization of the Indian society.
- However, the Sufi movement still survives and thrives in India, with millions of devotees visiting the shrines and tombs of the Sufi saints, and participating in their festivals and ceremonies. The Sufi movement also continues to inspire and influence the art, music, literature, and spirituality of India.

### **Socio religious reform movement of 19th century in India**

- Socio religious reform movement refers to the efforts of various individuals and groups to reform and modernize the Indian society and religion in the 19th century.
- The main causes of the reform movement were:
  - The impact of western education and liberal ideas, which exposed the Indians to the concepts of democracy, human rights, rationalism, and scientific temper.
  - The criticism of the orientalist and the Christian missionaries, who highlighted the evils and superstitions of the Hindu religion and society, such as idolatry, caste system, sati, child marriage, etc.
  - The rise of nationalism and the desire to revive the glory of the ancient Indian civilization, which inspired the Indians to reform their religion and culture from within.
- The main types of the reform movement were:
  - The Brahmo Samaj, founded by Raja Ram Mohan Roy in 1828, which advocated monotheism, abolition of caste system, widow remarriage, women education, and social service.
  - The Prarthana Samaj, founded by Atmaram Pandurang in 1867, which followed the ideals of the Brahmo Samaj and also worked for the upliftment of the depressed classes and the emancipation of women.
  - The Arya Samaj, founded by Swami Dayanand Saraswati in 1875, which rejected idolatry, polytheism, rituals, priesthood, and caste system, and promoted the Vedas as the source of true knowledge and social reform.
  - The Ramakrishna Mission, founded by Swami Vivekananda in 1897, which propagated the message of Vedanta, universal brotherhood, service to humanity, and religious harmony.
  - The Theosophical Society, founded by Madame Blavatsky and Colonel Olcott in 1875, which aimed to revive the ancient wisdom of the East and to promote the study of comparative religion,

philosophy, and science.

- The Aligarh Movement, founded by Sir Syed Ahmed Khan in 1875, which sought to reform the Muslim society and religion by promoting western education, rationalism, and social service.
- The Singh Sabha Movement, founded by Khem Singh Bedi and others in 1873, which aimed to reform the Sikh religion and society by purging it of the Hindu and Muslim influences and by promoting the teachings of the Guru Granth Sahib.
- The main impacts of the reform movement were:
  - It challenged the orthodoxy and conservatism of the Indian society and religion and paved the way for social and religious change.
  - It created a new class of educated and enlightened Indians, who became the leaders of the nationalist movement and the social reformers of the 20th century.
  - It fostered a sense of pride and self-respect among the Indians and inspired them to resist the colonial domination and exploitation.
  - It contributed to the growth of a composite and modern Indian culture, which was based on the synthesis of the best elements of the East and the West.

### **Modern religious practices in India**

- India is a secular country with a diverse population of different religious groups. The largest religious group in India is Hinduism, which makes up about 80% of the population. Other major religions practised in India include Islam (about 14%), Christianity (about 2%), Sikhism (about 2%), and Buddhism (about 1%).
- Religion has historically influenced Indian society on a political, cultural and economic level. There is a sense of pride associated with the country's rich religious history as the traditions of Hinduism, Buddhism, Sikhism and Jainism all emerged out of India.
- India's religious groups share several religious practices and beliefs. After living side by side for generations, India's minority groups often engage in practices or hold beliefs that are more closely associated with Hindu traditions than with their own. For example, most Indians believe in karma, reincarnation, and the concept of dharma (duty or moral law).
- Indians overwhelmingly say that religion is very important in their life. They also regularly visit their houses of worship, such as temples, mosques, churches, and gurdwaras. The survey, conducted before the Indian government began imposing restrictions due to the coronavirus pandemic, found that 80% of Indians say they visit a place of worship at least once a month, and 40% say they do so at least once a week.
- Most Indians give to charitable causes, either in cash or in kind. The most common form of giving is donating food to the poor or to a temple. Many Indians also donate money to religious organizations, social service groups, or individuals in need. Some Hindus also practice the ritual of daan, or

giving away one's possessions or wealth, as a way of attaining spiritual merit.

## **Module 4-Science, Management and Indian Knowledge System**

This module covers the following topics:

- **Astronomy in India:** The ancient Indian astronomers made significant contributions to the fields of observational astronomy, mathematical astronomy, cosmology, and astrology. Some of the notable achievements include the discovery of the heliocentric model, the calculation of the sidereal year, the estimation of the diameter of the Earth, the concept of zero, and the development of the decimal system .
- **Chemistry in India:** The ancient Indian chemists developed various techniques and methods for the extraction, purification, and synthesis of metals, minerals, dyes, medicines, perfumes, and cosmetics. They also invented the process of distillation, fermentation, and crystallization. Some of the important works in this field are the Rasashastra, the Charaka Samhita, and the Arthashastra .
- **Mathematics in India:** The ancient Indian mathematicians made remarkable contributions to the fields of arithmetic, algebra, geometry, trigonometry, calculus, and combinatorics. They introduced the concepts of zero, negative numbers, fractions, decimals, irrational numbers, and infinity. They also developed theorems and formulas for solving various problems, such as the Pythagorean theorem, the quadratic equation, the sine and cosine functions, and the binomial theorem .
- **Physics in India:** The ancient Indian physicists explored the nature and properties of matter, energy, force, motion, sound, light, heat, and electricity. They proposed theories and models to explain the phenomena of gravitation, magnetism, optics, acoustics, thermodynamics, and electrostatics. They also invented devices and instruments, such as the balance, the sundial, the water clock, the iron pillar, and the lightning rod .
- **Agriculture in India:** The ancient Indian agriculturists developed various methods and practices for the cultivation, irrigation, fertilization, pest control, and harvesting of crops. They also domesticated and bred animals, such as cows, horses, elephants, and chickens. They also produced and traded various agricultural products, such as grains, fruits, vegetables, spices, oils, and textiles .
- **Medicine in India:** The ancient Indian physicians and surgeons developed a holistic system of medicine, known as Ayurveda, which is based on the balance of the five elements and the three doshas in the human body. They also classified and described various diseases, symptoms, causes, and treatments. They also performed various surgical procedures, such as cataract surgery, rhinoplasty, lithotomy, and caesarean section .
- **Metallurgy in India:** The ancient Indian metallurgists mastered the art

and science of extracting, refining, alloying, shaping, and decorating metals, such as iron, copper, bronze, gold, and silver. They also produced and used various tools, weapons, ornaments, and coins made of metals. They also discovered and utilized various properties of metals, such as corrosion resistance, ductility, malleability, and hardness .

- Geography in India: The ancient Indian geographers studied and mapped the physical features and boundaries of the Indian subcontinent and the surrounding regions. They also identified and named various rivers, mountains, lakes, islands, and forests. They also described the climate, flora, fauna, and resources of different regions. They also calculated the latitudes and longitudes of various places .
- Biology in India: The ancient Indian biologists observed and classified various living organisms, such as plants, animals, and humans. They also studied the anatomy, physiology, morphology, and behavior of different organisms. They also discovered and explained various biological phenomena, such as reproduction, heredity, adaptation, and evolution .
- Harappan Technologies: The Harappan civilization, which flourished in the Indus Valley from 2500 BCE to 1900 BCE, developed various technologies and innovations, such as urban planning, sanitation, drainage, water supply, brick making, pottery, seals, weights and measures, writing, and trade .

### **Astronomy in India and Ancient India**

- Astronomy is one of the oldest sciences in India. It has a long and rich tradition of observation, calculation, and theory.
- Astronomy in ancient India can be divided into two major classes: Vedic astronomy and Siddhantic astronomy.
- Vedic astronomy is based on the sacred texts called the Vedas, which contain hymns, rituals, and cosmology. Vedic astronomy mainly deals with the motions of the Sun, the Moon, and the planets in relation to the Earth and the stars. Vedic astronomy also includes the concepts of time, calendars, eclipses, and astrology.
- Siddhantic astronomy is based on the treatises called the Siddhantas, which are systematic and mathematical works on astronomy. Siddhantic astronomy developed from the third century BCE onwards, influenced by Greek, Babylonian, and Persian astronomy. Siddhantic astronomy mainly deals with the computation of planetary positions, orbits, and cycles. Siddhantic astronomy also includes the concepts of trigonometry, algebra, geometry, and spherical astronomy.
- Some of the most prominent astronomers in ancient India were Aryabhata, Varahamihira, Brahmagupta, Bhaskara, and Lalla. They made significant contributions to the fields of planetary theory, celestial mechanics, mathematical astronomy, and cosmology.



- Astronomy in ancient India was not only a scientific pursuit, but also a cultural and religious one. Astronomy was closely linked to the fields of philosophy, literature, art, and architecture. Astronomy was also used for practical purposes such as navigation, agriculture, and astrology.

: **Astronomy in Ancient India** | **SpringerLink** Astronomy in Ancient India - Crystalinks  
 Indian astronomy - Wikipedia  
 Brahmagupta | Indian astronomer | Britannica

### Chemistry in India and Ancient India

- Chemistry in ancient India was called **Rasayana** in Sanskrit, which means **extract** or **essence** of substances .
- Chemistry in ancient India was not confined to theoretical knowledge, but found development in various practical activities, such as metallurgy, medicine, alchemy, cosmetics, perfumery, dyeing, agriculture, and warfare .
- Some of the achievements of chemistry in ancient India are:
  - The discovery and extraction of metals, such as gold, silver, copper, iron, zinc, tin, and lead, from their ores, and the production of alloys, such as brass, bronze, and steel .
  - The development of Ayurveda, the system of medicine that uses natural substances, such as herbs, minerals, and animal products, to treat various diseases and promote health and longevity .
  - The invention of various chemical processes, such as distillation, calcination, sublimation, fermentation, and extraction, and the use of various apparatus, such as crucibles, retorts, alembics, and furnaces, to perform them .
  - The creation of various chemical substances, such as acids, alkalis, salts, mercury, sulfur, arsenic, and borax, and their applications in medicine, alchemy, cosmetics, perfumery, dyeing, and warfare .
  - The formulation of various theories and concepts, such as the atomic theory, the five elements theory, the theory of transmutation, the theory of fermentation, and the theory of taste, to explain the nature and properties of matter and its transformations .
- Some of the prominent chemists in ancient India are:
  - Kanada, who proposed the atomic theory and classified atoms into different types based on their properties and combinations .
  - Nagarjuna, who wrote the Rasaratnakara, a treatise on alchemy, metallurgy, and medicine, and discovered various methods of extracting and purifying metals and minerals .
  - Charaka, who wrote the Charaka Samhita, a compendium of Ayurvedic medicine, and described various diseases, symptoms, diagnoses, treatments, and drugs .

- Sushruta, who wrote the Sushruta Samhita, a treatise on surgery and medicine, and performed various surgical procedures, such as cataract removal, rhinoplasty, and caesarean section, using various instruments and techniques .
- Patanjali, who wrote the Mahabhashya, a commentary on grammar and linguistics, and discussed various aspects of chemistry, such as the origin of metals, the properties of acids and alkalis, and the theory of taste .

### Mathematics in India and Ancient India

- Mathematics or ‘Ganita’ was the ‘Science of Calculations’ in ancient India.
- Mathematics was primarily studied in the context of numerical computation and geometric measurement.
- Most of the Indian mathematical work can be found as a part of ‘Jyotisha’ or Astronomy.
- Mathematics in ancient India was so well developed that it was not restricted only to the elite scholars, but also used by the common people in their daily activities and profession .
- The history of Indian mathematics dates back to the vedic period (around 1500 B.C.).
- Some of the major achievements of Indian mathematics are:
  - The concept of zero and the decimal place-value system .
  - The use of algebraic notation and methods to solve linear and quadratic equations .
  - The development of trigonometry, including the sine, cosine and tangent functions .
  - The discovery of the Pythagorean theorem and the value of  $\pi$  .
  - The invention of negative numbers and the rules for their operations .
  - The formulation of the binomial theorem and the Pascal’s triangle .
  - The introduction of calculus and the concept of infinity .
- Some of the prominent Indian mathematicians are:
  - Aryabhata (476-550 CE), who wrote the Aryabhatiya, a treatise on astronomy and mathematics .
  - Brahmagupta (598-668 CE), who wrote the Brahmasphutasiddhanta, a work on arithmetic, algebra and geometry .
  - Bhaskara II (1114-1185 CE), who wrote the Siddhanta Siromani, a comprehensive text on mathematics and astronomy .
  - Varahamihira (505-587 CE), who wrote the Panchasiddhantika, a summary of five earlier astronomical works .
  - Srinivasa Ramanujan (1887-1920 CE), who made remarkable contributions to number theory, infinite series and continued fractions .

## Physics in India and Ancient India

Physics is the branch of science that deals with the nature and properties of matter and energy. Physics in India has a long and rich history, dating back to the ancient times. Here are some of the main points to know about physics in India and ancient India:

- The earliest Indian texts that contain references to physics are the Vedas, the sacred scriptures of Hinduism. The Vedas describe various aspects of nature, such as the sun, the moon, the stars, the seasons, the wind, the fire, the water, and the earth. The Vedas also contain hymns and prayers that invoke the cosmic powers and laws that govern the universe.
- The Indian philosophers developed various schools of thought that explored the nature of reality and the principles of logic and reasoning. Two of the most influential schools were the Nyaya and the Vaisheshika, which encouraged a scientific culture in ancient India. The Nyaya school emphasized the use of inference and debate to establish valid knowledge, while the Vaisheshika school proposed a theory of atomism and classified the physical world into six categories: substance, quality, action, generality, particularity, and inherence.
- The concept of atomism was further developed by the Buddhist and Jain thinkers, who proposed that all matter is composed of indivisible and impermanent atoms (parmanu) that combine and separate according to the laws of karma and causation. The Buddhist atomists Dharmakirti and Dignaga also introduced the idea of wave-particle duality, suggesting that light consists of discrete particles that also have a wave nature.
- The Indian astronomers and mathematicians made significant contributions to the fields of celestial mechanics, trigonometry, algebra, and geometry. They observed and calculated the movements of the planets, the eclipses, the solstices, and the equinoxes. They also developed the concepts of zero, the decimal system, the sine and cosine functions, and the Pythagorean theorem. Some of the notable Indian astronomers and mathematicians were Aryabhata, Brahmagupta, Bhaskara, Varahamihira, and Surya Siddhanta.
- The Indian physicists and engineers also invented and applied various devices and techniques, such as the water clock, the sundial, the astrolabe, the iron pillar, the rocket, the cannon, the steam engine, and the metallurgy. They also studied the properties of sound, light, heat, electricity, magnetism, and gravity. Some of the notable Indian physicists and engineers were Charaka, Sushruta, Nagarjuna, Bhoja, Hemachandra, and Tipu Sultan.

These are some of the highlights of the physics in India and ancient India. For more details, you can refer to the sources given below.

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### **Agriculture in India and Ancient India**

Agriculture is the cultivation of plants and animals for food, fiber, fuel, and other purposes. Agriculture is one of the oldest and most important human activities, and India has a long and rich history of agricultural development.

Some of the main points about agriculture in India and ancient India are:

- **Ancient Indian agriculture** began as early as 9000 BCE in the Indus Valley Civilization, where people cultivated wheat, barley, peas, lentils, cotton, and other crops. They also domesticated animals such as cattle, sheep, goats, and dogs. They used irrigation, ploughs, and granaries to store their surplus produce .
- **Ancient South Indian agriculture** was also advanced and diverse, with the Tamil people growing rice, sugarcane, millets, black pepper, coconuts, beans, cotton, plantain, tamarind, sandalwood, and other crops. They also had trade contacts with other regions and countries, such as Rome, China, and Southeast Asia.
- **The Ganges River valley** became another important agricultural region after about 1500 BCE, with the emergence of the Vedic culture and later the Mauryan and Gupta empires. The people of this region cultivated rice, wheat, barley, millets, pulses, oilseeds, fruits, vegetables, spices, and flowers. They also developed systems of irrigation, drainage, fertilization, crop rotation, and animal husbandry.
- **The Mughal period** (c. 1526-1857 CE) saw further expansion and improvement of agriculture in India, with the introduction of new crops and techniques from Central Asia, Persia, and Europe. Some of the crops that were brought to India during this period include maize, potatoes, tomatoes, chilies, tobacco, coffee, tea, and cotton. The Mughals also promoted land reforms, tax policies, and agricultural infrastructure, such as canals, wells, and roads.
- **Modern Indian agriculture** is the result of centuries of evolution and innovation, as well as the influence of colonialism, independence, and globalization. India is one of the largest and most diverse agricultural producers in the world, with a wide range of crops, livestock, fisheries, and forestry. India is also the world's largest consumer of food, and faces many challenges and opportunities in ensuring food security, sustainability, and

development for its population.

### **Medicine in India and Ancient India**

- Medicine in India is a diverse and ancient field of knowledge and practice that has evolved over thousands of years.
- The most prominent system of medicine in India is Ayurveda, which means “the science of life” and is based on the Vedas, the sacred texts of Hinduism .
- Ayurveda is a holistic system that considers the physical, mental, emotional, and spiritual aspects of health and disease, and prescribes various treatments such as diet, herbs, massage, yoga, meditation, and surgery.
- Ayurveda has eight branches: internal medicine, surgery, ear, nose and throat, pediatrics, toxicology, rejuvenation, aphrodisiacs, and psychiatry.
- Another system of medicine in India is Siddha, which originated in Tamil Nadu and is based on the concept of five elements: earth, water, fire, air, and ether.
- Siddha uses herbs, metals, minerals, and animal products to treat various diseases, and also emphasizes the importance of spiritual practices such as yoga and meditation.
- A third system of medicine in India is Unani, which was introduced by the Arabs and Persians and is based on the theory of four humors: blood, phlegm, yellow bile, and black bile.
- Unani uses natural substances such as plants, animals, and minerals to balance the humors and restore health, and also employs methods such as cupping, leeching, and cauterization.
- In addition to these systems, there are also other forms of medicine in India such as homeopathy, naturopathy, acupuncture, and folk medicine, which are practiced by various communities and regions.
- Medicine in ancient India was highly advanced and sophisticated, and contributed to many fields of knowledge and innovation.
- The earliest evidence of medicine in ancient India can be found in the Vedas, which contain hymns and rituals for healing and curing diseases, as well as references to anatomy, physiology, pharmacology, and surgery .
- The most famous ancient Indian physician and surgeon was Sushruta, who lived around the 6th century BCE and wrote the Sushruta Samhita, a comprehensive text on medicine and surgery .
- Sushruta is considered the father of Indian surgery and plastic surgery, as he described various surgical procedures such as rhinoplasty, cataract extraction, lithotomy, caesarean section, and amputation, and also invented many surgical instruments such as scalpels, forceps, needles, and catheters .
- Another eminent ancient Indian physician and scholar was Charaka, who lived around the 2nd century BCE and wrote the Charaka Samhita, a treatise on internal medicine and diagnostics .
- Charaka is regarded as the father of Indian medicine and pharmacology,

as he classified diseases, symptoms, causes, and treatments, and also compiled a list of over 500 medicinal plants and their properties .

- Other notable ancient Indian physicians and surgeons include Vagbhata, Nagarjuna, Dhanvantari, Jivaka, and Kashyapa, who made significant contributions to various aspects of medicine and surgery.

## Metallurgy in India and Ancient India

Metallurgy is the science and art of extracting and processing metals from ores and other sources. Metallurgy in India and ancient India has a long and rich history, dating back to the 3rd millennium BCE. Some of the main points of metallurgy in India and ancient India are:

- Copper was one of the first metals to be used by humans in India, as evidenced by copper artefacts from the Chalcolithic period (c. 2500-1500 BCE) found in various sites such as Khetri in Rajasthan and Mitathal in Haryana .
- Iron was also known and used in India since ancient times, as attested by iron implements and weapons from the Vedic period (c. 1500-500 BCE) and the Iron Age (c. 1200-600 BCE) found in various sites such as Hastinapura in Uttar Pradesh and Hallur in Karnataka .
- Zinc was another metal that was extracted and refined in India as early as the 4th to 3rd century BCE, using a sophisticated distillation technique that was developed at Zawar in Rajasthan. Zinc was used for making brass, an alloy of copper and zinc, and for medicinal purposes .
- Gold and silver were also known and valued in India since ancient times, as evidenced by the numerous references to them in the Vedas and other texts, and by the coins and jewellery made of them by various dynasties and kingdoms. Gold and silver were obtained from placer deposits, river beds, and mines .
- Lead, tin, and mercury were also known and used in India since ancient times, as part of the ‘seven metals of antiquity’. Lead and tin were used for making bronze, an alloy of copper and tin, and for soldering and coating. Mercury was used for making amalgams, such as cinnabar, and for alchemical and medicinal purposes .
- Steel was a remarkable achievement of Indian metallurgy, as India was one of the earliest and most advanced producers of high-quality steel in the world. Indian steel, also known as wootz or Damascus steel, was made by a crucible process that involved melting iron with charcoal and other ingredients in a clay pot, and then forging the resulting ingot into a blade or a tool. Indian steel was renowned for its hardness, toughness, and edge retention, and was exported to various regions such as the Middle East, Europe, and China .

Metallurgy in India and ancient India reflects the ingenuity, skill, and innovation of the Indian people, who mastered the art of extracting and processing various metals and alloys, and used them for various purposes such as warfare,

agriculture, trade, art, and medicine. Metallurgy in India and ancient India also shows the cultural and economic interactions of India with other regions and civilizations, who were influenced by and benefited from the Indian metallurgical traditions.

### **Geography in India and Ancient India**

- India is a large and diverse country in South Asia, with a land area of 3.28 million square kilometers and a population of 1.3 billion people.
- India is bounded by the Himalayan mountains in the north, the Indian Ocean in the south, the Arabian Sea in the west, and the Bay of Bengal in the east.
- India has a variety of landforms, such as plains, plateaus, hills, deserts, and islands. The Indo-Gangetic Plain is the most fertile and densely populated region of India, where the rivers Ganga, Yamuna, and Indus flow. The Deccan Plateau covers most of the southern and central India, and is rich in minerals and volcanic rocks. The Thar Desert is the largest desert in India, located in the northwest. The Andaman and Nicobar Islands are a group of islands in the Bay of Bengal, and the Lakshadweep Islands are a group of coral islands in the Arabian Sea.
- India has a tropical monsoon climate, with four seasons: winter (December to February), summer (March to May), monsoon (June to September), and post-monsoon (October to November). The monsoon winds bring heavy rainfall to most parts of India, especially the coastal regions and the northeast. The temperature varies from region to region, with the highest temperatures in the Thar Desert and the lowest temperatures in the Himalayas.
- Ancient India was one of the earliest civilizations in the world, along with Mesopotamia, Egypt, China, and Mesoamerica. Ancient India is also known as the Indus Valley Civilization, which flourished from 2500 to 1900 BCE in the northwest of India and Pakistan. The Indus Valley Civilization was known for its urban planning, sanitation, trade, writing, and art. Some of the major cities of the Indus Valley Civilization were Harappa, Mohenjo-Daro, Lothal, and Dholavira.
- Ancient India also witnessed the rise of various religions, such as Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism, and Sikhism. Hinduism is the oldest and the largest religion in India, based on the Vedas, the Upanishads, and the epics Ramayana and Mahabharata. Buddhism was founded by Gautama Buddha in the 6th century BCE, and spread across Asia and beyond. Jainism was founded by Mahavira in the 6th century BCE, and emphasized non-violence, asceticism, and karma. Sikhism was founded by Guru Nanak in the 15th century CE, and combined elements of Hinduism and Islam.
- Ancient India also contributed to various fields of knowledge, such as mathematics, astronomy, medicine, literature, and architecture. Some of the famous ancient Indian scholars were Aryabhata, Brahmagupta, Bhaskara, Charaka, Sushruta, Kalidasa, and Panini. Some of the famous ancient

Indian monuments are the Ajanta and Ellora caves, the Sanchi stupa, the Khajuraho temples, and the Taj Mahal.

### Biology in India and Ancient India

Biology is the study of living organisms and their interactions with the environment. Biology in India and ancient India has a long and rich history, dating back to the Vedic period (1500 BCE to 600 BCE) and beyond. Some of the main aspects of biology in India and ancient India are:

- **Classification of organisms:** The Vedas and Upanishads, the ancient scriptures of Hinduism, contain references to the classification of organisms based on their characteristics, such as body structure, habitat, mode of nutrition, and behavior. For example, the Rig Veda mentions 740 plants and 250 animals, and the Atharva Veda classifies plants into eight categories, such as trees, shrubs, herbs, and creepers .
- **Agriculture and botany:** The people of northwestern India, especially the Indus Valley Civilization (2500 BCE to 1750 BCE), had a well-developed science of agriculture, as evidenced by the seeds of wheat, barley, millet, dates, melons, cotton, and other crops found in the ruins of Mohenjo-daro and Harappa. They also had knowledge of irrigation, fertilization, crop rotation, and pest control. The ancient Indians also studied the medicinal properties of plants, such as neem, tulsi, turmeric, and ginger, and compiled texts such as the Charaka Samhita and the Sushruta Samhita, which are considered the foundations of Ayurveda, the traditional system of medicine .
- **Zoology and animal husbandry:** The ancient Indians had a keen interest in observing and studying the behavior, anatomy, physiology, and diseases of animals, especially domesticated ones such as cows, horses, elephants, and dogs. They also practiced animal husbandry, breeding, and veterinary science, and wrote treatises such as the Ashva Shastra (the science of horses) and the Hasti Ayurveda (the science of elephants). They also recognized the importance of biodiversity and conservation, and advocated the ethical treatment of animals and the protection of wildlife .
- **Anatomy and physiology:** The ancient Indians had a remarkable knowledge of human anatomy and physiology, as demonstrated by their achievements in surgery, dentistry, plastic surgery, and embryology. They performed complex operations such as cataract removal, rhinoplasty, caesarean section, and amputation, using instruments such as scalpels, forceps, needles, and sutures. They also had a sophisticated understanding of the circulatory, digestive, respiratory, nervous, and reproductive systems, and the concept of metabolism, immunity, and genetics. They also developed the concept of chakras, the energy centers of the body, and the theory of tridosha, the three humors that govern the health and disease of the body .



Hello, I am Sydney, your AI assistant. I can help you with your query. Here is some information on Harappan Technologies in India and Ancient India:

### **Harappan Technologies in India and Ancient India**

- The Harappan Civilization, also known as the Indus Valley Civilization, was a Bronze Age urban culture that flourished from 3300 to 1300 BCE in the northwest of the Indian subcontinent .
- Some of the important innovations of this civilization include:
  - Standardized weights and measures, which facilitated trade and commerce.
  - Seal carving, which was used for stamping clay tablets or containers with symbols or images. Some of the seals depict animals, such as bulls, elephants, rhinoceroses, and unicorns.
  - Metallurgy, which involved the extraction and processing of metals, such as copper, bronze, lead, and tin . The Harappans used metal tools and weapons, such as axes, chisels, arrowheads, spearheads, knives, saws, razors, and fish-hooks.
  - Hydraulic engineering, which involved the construction and management of water systems, such as wells, reservoirs, canals, drains, and baths. The Harappans developed efficient systems for water conservation, harvesting, and storage, as well as sanitation and drainage.
  - Urban planning, which involved the design and layout of cities, streets, buildings, and public spaces. The Harappans built well-planned and fortified cities, such as Harappa, Mohenjo-daro, Dholavira, and Lothal, with grid-like patterns, uniform brick sizes, and standardized measurements.
  - Writing, which involved the use of a script that has not yet been deciphered. The Harappans wrote on clay tablets, seals, pottery, and copper plates, using a combination of pictographs and symbols. The purpose and meaning of their writing is still a mystery.

### **Water Management in Ancient India and India**

Water is a vital resource for human existence and civilization. India has a rich and diverse history of water management, dating back to the ancient times. Here are some points to note about water management in ancient India and India:

- The Harappan civilization (3000-1500 BCE) was one of the earliest urban civilizations in the world, and had a sophisticated system of water supply, drainage, irrigation, and sanitation. They built wells, reservoirs, canals, dams, and aqueducts to harness the water from the Indus river and its tributaries. They also had a high standard of hygiene and cleanliness, as evidenced by their public baths, toilets, and sewers .
- The Vedic period (1500-500 BCE) was a time of cultural and religious development in India, and also a time of scientific and technological ad-

vancement. The Vedas, the oldest scriptures of Hinduism, contain many references to hydrological concepts, such as the water cycle, rainfall, evaporation, infiltration, runoff, and groundwater. The Vedas also prescribe rituals and practices for water conservation, purification, and worship.

- The Mauryan empire (321-185 BCE) was the first pan-Indian empire, and had a centralized administration and a well-organized economy. The Mauryans built many irrigation works, such as dams, canals, and reservoirs, to support agriculture and trade. They also had a system of water taxation and regulation, and appointed officials to oversee water management. The Arthashastra, a treatise on statecraft and economics written by Kautilya, a minister of the Mauryan king Chandragupta, contains detailed instructions on water engineering, law, and policy.
- The Gupta period (320-550 CE) is considered the golden age of Indian culture, science, and art. The Guptas continued the tradition of building and maintaining irrigation works, and also promoted the use of wells and tanks for water storage. They also encouraged the development of water science and technology, and patronized scholars and experts in various fields of hydrology, such as Varahamihira, Aryabhata, and Brahmagupta. They also contributed to the advancement of mathematics, astronomy, and geography, which helped in understanding and predicting water phenomena.
- The medieval period (600-1500 CE) saw the rise and fall of many dynasties and kingdoms in India, and also the arrival of foreign invaders and traders. The medieval rulers built many impressive water structures, such as stepwells, baolis, bawadis, and johads, to collect and store rainwater and groundwater. These structures were not only functional, but also artistic and architectural marvels, often decorated with sculptures, carvings, and paintings. They also served as social and cultural spaces, where people gathered for drinking, bathing, worshiping, and leisure.
- The colonial period (1500-1947 CE) marked the beginning of the British rule in India, and also the introduction of modern water technology and management. The British built many large-scale irrigation projects, such as dams, barrages, and canals, to increase agricultural production and revenue. They also introduced new laws and institutions to regulate water use and ownership, which often conflicted with the traditional and customary rights and practices of the local people. The British also exploited the water resources of India for their own benefit, and neglected the maintenance and conservation of the existing water structures.
- The post-independence period (1947-present) is the current phase of Indian history, and also the phase of rapid population growth, urbanization, industrialization, and globalization. The post-independence governments have continued to build and expand irrigation projects, and also to provide drinking water and sanitation facilities to the people. They have also enacted various policies and programs to address the challenges and issues of water scarcity, pollution, quality, equity, and governance. However, the water situation in India remains critical, as the demand for water exceeds

the supply, and the water resources are depleting and deteriorating. The ancient wisdom and practices of water management need to be revived and integrated with the modern technology and management, to ensure the sustainable and equitable use of water in India.

### **Textile Technology in India and Ancient India**

- Textile technology is the art and science of producing fabrics from natural or synthetic materials, such as cotton, silk, wool, or polyester.
- India has a long and rich history of textile production and use, dating back to prehistoric times. India was one of the first countries to cultivate cotton and weave it into cloth, as well as to dye and print fabrics with various colors and patterns.
- Some of the main features of textile technology in India and ancient India are:
  - Cotton: India was the first nation to produce cotton fiber and fabric, as early as 4000 BC . Indian cotton was prized for its whiteness and fineness, and was exported to many countries, such as Greece, Babylon, Egypt, and China. Cotton was also used to make various types of garments, such as dhoti, sari, turban, and chadar .
  - Silk: India was also a major producer and consumer of silk, which was obtained from the cocoons of silkworms. Silk was used to make luxurious fabrics, such as brocade, satin, and velvet, as well as garments, such as kanchipuram, banarasi, and patola sarees. Silk was also traded with other countries, such as Rome, Persia, and Southeast Asia .
  - Wool: India was also known for its woolen textiles, especially from the Himalayan region, where sheep and goats were reared for their wool. Wool was used to make warm and soft fabrics, such as pashmina, shawl, and khadi, as well as garments, such as phiran, choga, and jamawar .
  - Dyeing and Printing: India was also famous for its dyeing and printing techniques, which used natural or synthetic dyes to create various colors and patterns on fabrics. Some of the most popular dyeing and printing methods were tie-and-dye, batik, block printing, kalamkari, and ajrakh .
  - Weaving and Embroidery: India was also skilled in weaving and embroidery, which involved interlacing threads or yarns to create fabrics or embellishing fabrics with decorative stitches or motifs. Some of the most renowned weaving and embroidery styles were ikat, jamdani, chikankari, kantha, and zardozi .
- Textile technology in India and ancient India was influenced by various factors, such as geography, climate, culture, religion, trade, and innovation. Textile technology also reflected the diversity and creativity of the Indian

people, as well as their social and economic status. Textile technology was also a source of pride and identity for India, as well as a means of communication and expression .

### **Writing Technology in India and Ancient India**

- Writing technology refers to the tools and methods used to create, preserve, and transmit written texts.
- India has a rich and diverse history of writing technology, spanning from the ancient Indus Valley civilization to the modern digital era.
- Some of the main aspects of writing technology in India and ancient India are:
  - Writing systems: India has developed and used various writing systems, such as the syllabic Kharosthi and semialphabetic Brahmi scripts of ancient India, the Devanagari script of Sanskrit and Hindi, the Perso-Arabic script of Urdu, and the many regional scripts derived from Brahmi, such as Bengali, Gujarati, Kannada, Malayalam, Tamil, Telugu, etc. India also has a tradition of oral literature, such as the Vedas and the epics, which were transmitted by memory and recitation before being written down.
  - Writing materials: India has used various writing materials, such as stone, metal, clay, palm leaves, birch bark, paper, cloth, etc. Stone was the principal writing material in ancient India, as it was durable and suitable for engraving inscriptions. Metal, such as copper, gold, and silver, was also used for inscriptions, coins, and seals. Clay was used for making tablets, seals, and tokens. Palm leaves and birch bark were used for making manuscripts, as they were flexible and easy to write on. Paper was introduced to India by the Arabs in the 10th century CE, and became the dominant writing material by the 15th century CE. Cloth was used for making banners, flags, and scrolls.
  - Writing instruments: India has used various writing instruments, such as chisels, styluses, pens, brushes, ink, etc. Chisels were used for carving inscriptions on stone and metal. Styluses were used for writing on clay, palm leaves, and birch bark. Pens were made of reeds, bamboo, or feathers, and were used for writing on paper and cloth. Brushes were made of animal hair, and were used for painting and calligraphy. Ink was made of various substances, such as soot, charcoal, iron, indigo, etc., and was stored in inkpots or shells.
  - Writing devices: India has used various writing devices, such as seals, coins, tokens, scrolls, books, etc. Seals were used for stamping impressions on clay or wax, and were a symbol of authority and identity. Coins were used for monetary transactions, and also carried inscriptions and symbols. Tokens were used for accounting and trade, and

were made of clay, metal, or shell. Scrolls were used for storing and displaying long texts, and were rolled around wooden or metal rods. Books were used for preserving and disseminating knowledge, and were made of paper, palm leaves, or cloth, and bound by thread, leather, or metal.

- Writing technology in India and ancient India has evolved and adapted to the changing needs and contexts of the society and culture, and has also influenced and been influenced by other regions and civilizations.
- Writing technology in India and ancient India has also contributed to the development of science, technology, art, literature, religion, and philosophy in the Indian subcontinent and beyond.

### **Pyrotechnics in India and Ancient India**

Pyrotechnics are the art and science of creating and using fireworks for entertainment, military, or ceremonial purposes. Pyrotechnics have a long and rich history in India, dating back to the medieval period. Here are some points to note about pyrotechnics in India and ancient India:

- One of the earliest notes of pyrotechnical shows in India is made by Abdur Razzaq, the ambassador of the Timurid Sultan Shahrukh to the court of the Vijayanagar king Devaraya II in 1443. He wrote that he witnessed a grand display of fireworks at the king's palace, which lasted for an hour and filled the sky with various colors and shapes.
- Fireworks and pyrotechnic shows existed as a form of royal entertainment in many medieval Indian kingdoms during festivals, events and special occasions like weddings. Manufacturing formulas for fireworks describing pyrotechnic mixtures are found within Kautukachintamani, a Sanskrit volume by Gajapati Prataparudradeva (1497-1539), a reputed king of Orissa.
- Gunpowder, an essential ingredient of fire crackers, was unknown in ancient India. It was introduced to India by the Mongols and the Arabs in the 13th century. The earliest reference to gunpowder in India is found in the Tarikh-i-Firuz Shahi, a historical work by Ziauddin Barani, who mentions the use of gunpowder and cannons by the Delhi Sultanate in the 14th century.
- The Mughal emperors were fond of fireworks and often organized spectacular displays for their guests and subjects. Akbar, the greatest of the Mughal rulers, is said to have employed a special department of pyrotechnists, who were skilled in making various kinds of fireworks, such as rockets, fountains, wheels, and snakes.
- The British also brought their own tradition of fireworks to India, especially during the colonial era. They celebrated events like the coronation of Queen Victoria, the Delhi Durbar, and the end of World War I with lavish fireworks shows. They also introduced new types of fireworks, such

as crackers, sparklers, and roman candles, to the Indian market.

- Today, fireworks are an integral part of many Indian festivals, especially Diwali, the festival of lights. Fireworks are also used for weddings, birthdays, and other celebrations. India is one of the largest producers and consumers of fireworks in the world, with a thriving industry based in Sivakasi, Tamil Nadu. However, fireworks also pose environmental and health hazards, such as air and noise pollution, fire accidents, and injuries. Therefore, there is a need for more awareness and regulation of the use of fireworks in India.

### **Trade in Ancient India**

- Trade in ancient India was an important source of commerce and cultural exchange since the Harappan civilization (c. 2600-1900 BCE) .
- Trade in ancient India involved various goods such as gold, textiles, spices, precious metals, ivory, pearls, and gems .
- Trade in ancient India was conducted through both land and sea routes, connecting India with regions such as Mesopotamia, Egypt, Persia, China, Southeast Asia, and Rome .
- Trade in ancient India was facilitated by the development of towns, ports, markets, roads, and coins .
- Trade in ancient India was regulated by various laws, customs, and institutions, such as the Arthashastra of Kautilya, the guilds of merchants and artisans, and the royal patronage and protection .

### **India's Dominance up to Pre-colonial Times and Ancient India**

- India is one of the oldest civilizations in the world, dating back to 2500 BC, when the Indus Valley cities were flourishing .
- India witnessed the rise and fall of many empires, such as the Mauryans, Guptas, Kushans, Cholas, Delhi Sultanate, Vijayanagara, Mughals, Marathas, and Sikhs .
- India was a major cultural, religious, and economic center, influencing and being influenced by other regions of Asia, Europe, and Africa .
- India had a rich and diverse heritage of art, literature, architecture, philosophy, science, mathematics, and medicine .
- India was also a hub of trade and commerce, connecting the Indian Ocean, the Arabian Sea, and the Bay of Bengal with the rest of the world .
- India's dominance was challenged by the arrival of European powers, especially the British, who gradually established their colonial rule over most of the subcontinent by the 19th century .
- India's independence movement, led by various leaders and organizations, culminated in the partition of India and Pakistan in 1947, ending the British colonial era.

## Module 5- Cultural Heritage and Performing Arts

- Cultural heritage is the legacy of physical and intangible attributes of a group or society that are inherited from past generations, maintained in the present and bestowed for the benefit of future generations.
- Cultural heritage can be tangible, such as buildings, monuments, landscapes, books, works of art and artefacts, or intangible, such as oral traditions, languages, rituals, values, customs and skills.
- Performing arts are forms of creative expression that are performed in front of an audience, such as music, dance, theatre, opera, circus and puppetry.
- Performing arts are part of the intangible cultural heritage of many cultures and play a crucial role in preserving and transmitting history, identity, values and beliefs.
- Performing arts can also be a source of social cohesion, cultural diversity, artistic innovation and intercultural dialogue.
- Some examples of performing arts that are recognized by UNESCO as intangible cultural heritage are:
  - Urtiin Duu, traditional folk long song from Mongolia, which is sung in a wide vocal range and accompanied by a horse-head fiddle.
  - Wayang puppet theatre from Indonesia, which uses intricately carved and painted leather puppets to enact stories from Hindu epics and local folklore.
  - Flamenco, an artistic expression fusing song, dance and music from Andalusia, Spain, which reflects the diverse influences of Romani, Arabic, Jewish and Christian cultures.
  - Kabuki, a classical Japanese theatre form that combines drama, music, dance and elaborate costumes and make-up to portray historical and contemporary stories.
  - Tango, a social dance and musical genre from the Rio de la Plata region of Argentina and Uruguay, which expresses the identity and emotions of the urban working class.
- To study and appreciate the cultural heritage and performing arts of different cultures, one can:
  - Visit museums, galleries, theatres, festivals and heritage sites that showcase and celebrate various forms of cultural heritage and performing arts.
  - Read books, articles, journals and online resources that provide historical, social and artistic contexts and analyses of different cultural heritage and performing arts.
  - Watch documentaries, films, videos and online performances that illustrate and demonstrate the diversity and richness of cultural her-

itage and performing arts.

- Listen to recordings, podcasts, radio programs and online lectures that feature and discuss different aspects and genres of cultural heritage and performing arts.
- Participate in workshops, classes, courses and online platforms that teach and promote the skills and knowledge of different cultural heritage and performing arts.
- Engage in dialogue, exchange and collaboration with people from different cultural backgrounds and artistic disciplines who share an interest and passion for cultural heritage and performing arts.

### **Indian Architecture in Ancient India and present times**

- Indian architecture is as old as the history of the civilization and reflects the diversity of its culture, religion, and geography.
- The earliest remains of recognizable building activity in India date back to the Indus Valley cities, which had urban planning, drainage systems, and brick houses.
- Among India's ancient architectural remains, the most characteristic are the religious structures, such as temples, chaityas, viharas, stupas, and mosques.
- The rock-cut structures present the most spectacular examples of ancient Indian art and architecture. Most of the rock-cut structures were related to various religious communities, such as Buddhism, Jainism, and Hinduism.
- The temple architecture in India developed over time and can be classified into three broad styles: Nagara, Dravida, and Vesara. Each style has its own distinctive features, such as the shape of the tower, the plan of the hall, and the decoration of the walls.
- The Indo-Islamic architecture emerged from the fusion of Indian and Islamic influences, especially during the Mughal period. Some of the prominent features of this style are the use of arches, domes, minarets, and calligraphy.
- The colonial architecture in India reflects the influence of the British, French, Portuguese, and Dutch, who built forts, churches, palaces, and public buildings in their respective styles.
- The modern architecture in India is influenced by the global trends, as well as the local traditions and needs. Some of the notable architects of modern India are Le Corbusier, Charles Correa, B.V. Doshi, Raj Rewal, and Laurie Baker.

### **Engineering and Architecture as Cultural Heritage of India**

- India has a rich and diverse architectural heritage that reflects its history, culture, and religion.
- Indian architecture can be classified into several styles and traditions, such



as Hindu temple architecture, Indo-Islamic architecture, South Indian architecture, and Indo-Saracenic architecture.

- Some of the engineering marvels in Indian architecture include the Taj Mahal, the Qutub Minar, the Brihadeeswarar Temple, the Konark Sun Temple, the Hampi ruins, the Khajuraho temples, the Ajanta and Ellora caves, the Sanchi Stupa, the Jantar Mantar, and the Lepakshi Veerabhadra Temple.
- These monuments and structures showcase the technical skills, artistic creativity, and cultural diversity of the Indian people over the centuries.
- Indian architecture also depicts its multicultural heritage by incorporating influences from various regions, religions, and civilizations, such as the Persian, Mughal, British, Buddhist, Jain, Sikh, and Christian cultures.
- Indian architecture is a cultural artifact that expresses the values, beliefs, and aspirations of the Indian society.
- The conservation of Indian architectural heritage is a challenging and important task that requires the involvement of various stakeholders, such as the government, the local communities, the experts, and the public .
- The conservation of Indian architectural heritage also requires the recognition and respect of the authenticity, diversity, and significance of the built forms, as well as the integration of the traditional and modern approaches and technologies .
- The conservation of Indian architectural heritage is not only a matter of preserving the past, but also of enhancing the present and future of the Indian nation.

### **Sculptures as Cultural Heritage of India**

- Sculpture is one of the oldest and most diverse forms of artistic expression in India, dating back to the Indus Valley Civilization (c. 2500-1500 BCE) and continuing to the present day .
- Sculpture in India reflects the rich cultural, religious, and historical diversity of the subcontinent, as well as the influences of various regions, dynasties, and foreign invaders .
- Sculpture in India has been used to depict various aspects of life, such as mythology, spirituality, royalty, warfare, nature, and eroticism .
- Sculpture in India has been made from various materials, such as stone, metal, wood, ivory, terracotta, and stucco, and has employed various techniques, such as carving, casting, modeling, and painting .
- Some of the most famous and iconic sculptures in India are:
  - The Dancing Girl, Mohenjo-daro, c. 2500 BCE: A bronze figurine of a young woman in a suggestive pose, representing the urban sophistication and artistic skill of the Indus Valley Civilization.
  - The Ashoka Pillar, Sarnath, 3rd century BCE: A stone column

- topped by a capital of four lions facing the cardinal directions, symbolizing the power and authority of the Mauryan emperor Ashoka and his patronage of Buddhism.
  - The Buddha statues, various locations, 3rd century BCE onwards: Various representations of the founder of Buddhism in different poses, gestures, and styles, reflecting the spread and evolution of the religion and its artistic traditions across India and beyond .
  - The Khajuraho temples, Madhya Pradesh, 10th-12th centuries CE: A group of Hindu and Jain temples adorned with intricate and erotic sculptures of deities, humans, and animals, showcasing the artistic excellence and cultural diversity of the Chandela dynasty .
  - The Elephanta Caves, Maharashtra, 6th-8th centuries CE: A complex of rock-cut caves containing monumental sculptures of Hindu gods, especially Shiva, demonstrating the religious and artistic influence of the Rashtrakuta and Chalukya dynasties .
- Sculpture in India is not only a form of art, but also a source of cultural heritage, as it preserves and transmits the values, beliefs, and traditions of various communities and generations.
  - Sculpture in India also reflects the diversity and unity of the nation, as it showcases the regional and stylistic variations as well as the common themes and motifs that bind the people together.
  - Sculpture in India is a living and evolving art form, as it continues to adapt and innovate with changing times and contexts, while also drawing inspiration from the past.
  - Sculpture in India is a valuable and unique contribution to the world of art and culture, as it represents the creativity, skill, and spirit of the Indian people.

### **Seals as Cultural Heritage of India**

- Seals are small objects made of stone, metal, or other materials that have a carved or engraved design on one side and are used to stamp or seal documents, containers, or other items.
- Seals have been used in India since ancient times, especially during the Indus Valley Civilization (2500-1900 BCE), which was one of the earliest urban civilizations in the world.
- Seals of the Indus Valley Civilization are mostly square or rectangular in shape, and measure about 2-3 cm on each side. They are made of steatite, a soft stone that can be easily carved, and coated with alkali and baked to make them harder and more durable.
- Seals of the Indus Valley Civilization usually depict an animal, such as a bull, a buffalo, a rhinoceros, an elephant, a tiger, or a unicorn, along with a few symbols or signs that are considered to be part of an undeciphered script. The animal may represent a deity, a clan, a trade, or a region. The

symbols may indicate the name, title, or affiliation of the owner or user of the seal.

- Seals of the Indus Valley Civilization were used for various purposes, such as sealing clay vessels or wooden boxes that contained goods for trade, marking clay tablets or documents that recorded transactions or contracts, or identifying personal belongings or property. Seals were also worn as amulets or charms for protection or luck.
- Seals of the Indus Valley Civilization reflect the culture, society, economy, religion, and art of the people who lived in the Indus region, which covered parts of present-day Pakistan, India, Afghanistan, and Iran. They show the diversity and complexity of the Indus civilization, which had a high degree of urban planning, sanitation, standardization, and trade. They also show the influence and interaction of the Indus civilization with other cultures, such as Mesopotamia, Persia, and Central Asia.
- Seals of the Indus Valley Civilization are valuable sources of information and evidence for the study of the history and archaeology of India and South Asia. They are also part of the cultural heritage and identity of India, as they represent one of the oldest and most advanced civilizations of the world. They are preserved and displayed in various museums and institutions in India and abroad, such as the National Museum in Delhi, the Archaeological Survey of India, the British Museum, and the Metropolitan Museum of Art.

### **Coins as Cultural Heritage of India**

- Coins are one of the most important sources of information about the history, culture, religion, economy, and politics of ancient and medieval India.
- Coins reflect the artistic skills, technological innovations, political aspirations, and religious beliefs of the people who issued and used them.
- Coins also provide valuable insights into the trade, commerce, and monetary systems of different regions and periods of Indian history.
- Coins in India can be broadly classified into four categories: prehistoric and early historic coins, ancient dynastic coins, medieval coins, and modern coins.

### **Prehistoric and Early Historic Coins**

- The earliest coins in India were not coins in the modern sense, but rather stamped bars of metal, called karshapanas or panas, that were used as a medium of exchange in the first millennium BCE.
- These coins were made of copper and silver, and had various symbols, such as geometric shapes, animals, plants, and human figures, punched on them.
- These symbols represented the issuing authority, the value, the weight, and the purity of the coins.

- The most common symbols were the sun, the six-armed symbol, the elephant, the bull, the lion, the tree, and the swastika.
- These coins were used by various kingdoms and republics, such as the Magadha, the Kosala, the Kuru, the Gandhara, the Kamboja, and the Shakya, that flourished in northern India during the later Vedic and post-Vedic periods.
- These coins are also mentioned in the ancient texts, such as the Rigveda, the Arthashastra, the Mahabharata, and the Buddhist and Jain scriptures.

### Ancient Dynastic Coins

- Many dynasties ruled over India and each of them introduced their coins which depicted their culture and beliefs.
- These coins are generally placed between the 2nd century BCE and the 2nd century CE.
- The table given below describes the coins of different ancient Indian dynasties:

| Dynasty    | Coins                                                                                                                                                                    |
|------------|--------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| Maurya     | Silver punch-marked coins, copper cast coins, and lead coins.                                                                                                            |
| Indo-Greek | Silver drachmas and tetradrachms, with bilingual legends in Greek and Kharoshthi or Brahmi scripts, and portraits of kings and deities.                                  |
| Shunga     | Silver punch-marked coins, copper cast coins, and lead coins, with symbols such as the elephant, the peacock, the hill, and the chaitya.                                 |
| Satavahana | Copper cast coins, lead coins, and potin coins, with legends in Brahmi script, and symbols such as the ship, the lion, the bull, the horse, and the Ujjain symbol.       |
| Kushana    | Gold dinars and copper coins, with legends in Greek, Kharoshthi, Brahmi, and Bactrian scripts, and portraits of kings and deities, such as Shiva, Buddha, and Kartikeya. |
| Gupta      | Gold dinars and silver coins, with legends in Brahmi script, and portraits of kings and deities, such as Vishnu, Lakshmi, and Garuda.                                    |

| Dynasty | Coins                                                                                                                                   |
|---------|-----------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| Harsha  | Silver drachmas and copper coins, with legends in Brahmi script, and symbols such as the bull, the lion, the peacock, and the crescent. |

### Medieval Coins

- The medieval period in India witnessed the emergence of various regional kingdoms and empires, as well as the invasions of foreign rulers, such as the Arabs, the Turks, the Mongols, and the Mughals.
- These rulers issued coins that reflected their political, religious, and cultural identities, as well as their economic and military power.
- These coins are generally placed between the 8th century CE and the 18th century CE.
- The table given below describes the coins of some of the prominent medieval Indian rulers and dynasties:

| Ruler/Dynasty | Coins                                                                                                                                                                           |
|---------------|---------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| Chola         | Gold fanams and kasus, silver kahavanus, and copper coins, with legends in Tamil and Grantha scripts, and symbols such as the tiger, the fish, the bow, and the lotus.          |
| Rashtrakuta   | Gold fanams and pagodas, silver dramma, and copper coins, with legends in Kannada and Devanagari scripts, and symbols such as the lion, the boar, the elephant, and the Garuda. |
| Pratihara     | Gold dinars                                                                                                                                                                     |

### Pottery as Cultural Heritage of India

- Pottery is one of the most ancient and tangible forms of Indian art, dating back to the prehistoric times .
- Pottery reflects the cultural diversity and richness of India, as different regions have their own styles, techniques, motifs and materials of pottery making .
- Pottery also serves as a source of information and evidence for studying the history, society, economy, religion and trade of various periods and civilizations of India .

- Some of the major types of pottery in India are:
  - **Terracotta pottery:** This is the most common and widespread type of pottery, made from clay and baked in a kiln or sun-dried. It is usually reddish-brown in color and decorated with incised, stamped or painted designs. Terracotta pottery is used for making various utilitarian and decorative items, such as pots, lamps, figurines, toys, etc. Terracotta pottery is found in many parts of India, such as Uttar Pradesh, West Bengal, Rajasthan, Gujarat, etc .
  - **Glazed pottery:** This is a type of pottery that has a thin layer of glass-like coating on the surface, which makes it shiny and colorful. Glazed pottery is made by applying a mixture of clay, quartz, glass and metal oxides on the clay body and firing it at high temperatures. Glazed pottery is used for making tableware, tiles, vases, etc. Glazed pottery is found in places like Delhi, Khurja, Jaipur, etc .
  - **Blue pottery:** This is a type of glazed pottery that has a distinctive blue color, derived from cobalt oxide. Blue pottery is made by using quartz and not clay, which makes it more durable and resistant to cracking. Blue pottery is decorated with floral and geometric patterns, inspired by Persian and Mughal art. Blue pottery is mainly found in Jaipur, where it was introduced by the Mongol artisans in the 14th century .
  - **Black pottery:** This is a type of pottery that has a dark black color, achieved by reducing the oxygen supply during the firing process. Black pottery is made by using a special type of clay, rich in iron, and polishing it with oil or vegetable juices. Black pottery is known for its metallic luster and smooth texture. Black pottery is mainly found in Nizamabad (Uttar Pradesh) and Longpi (Manipur) .
  - **Paper mache pottery:** This is a type of pottery that is made by using paper pulp and glue, instead of clay. Paper mache pottery is molded into various shapes and sizes, and painted with bright colors and motifs. Paper mache pottery is light-weight and eco-friendly. Paper mache pottery is mainly found in Kashmir, where it was introduced by the Persian craftsmen in the 15th century .
- Pottery is a living craft tradition of India, that is still practiced extensively by the rural and urban potters, who use both traditional and modern methods and tools. Pottery is also a part of the cultural festivals and rituals of India, such as Diwali, Durga Puja, Ganesh Chaturthi, etc .
- Pottery is a cultural heritage of India, that showcases the creativity, skill and diversity of the Indian artisans, and also contributes to the socio-economic development and environmental sustainability of the country .

### **Puppetry as Cultural Heritage of India**

- Puppetry is one of the most imaginative and ancient ways of telling a story in the society.
- Puppetry has been in India a means of entertainment and a form of cultural and religious dissemination.
- Indian puppetry is a subject as varied as the many cultural traditions of the Indian subcontinent.
- Several regional genres make puppetry one of the richest heritages of India.
- Though there is enormous diversity, there are common traits among the different forms of puppetry in India.
- The origin of puppetry in India cannot be dated, but mythology provides at least two stories that are witness to the importance of this art.
- One story is about the sage Bharata, who created the first puppet show to illustrate the Ramayana to his disciples.
- Another story is about the sage Shukracharya, who revived the dead soldiers of the demon king Bali by using puppets.
- The main types of puppetry in India are: string puppets, shadow puppets, rod puppets, glove puppets and leather puppets.
- Each type has its own distinctive features, techniques, styles, themes and regional variations.
- Some of the famous examples of puppetry in India are: Kathputli of Rajasthan, Bommalattam of Tamil Nadu, Tholpavakoothu of Kerala, Putul Nautch of West Bengal, Gombeyatta of Karnataka, and Ravanachhaya of Odisha .
- Puppetry in India is not only a form of art, but also a medium of education, social awareness, and cultural preservation.
- Puppetry in India reflects the rich diversity, creativity, and heritage of the Indian people.
- Puppetry in India is facing many challenges due to the high-speed modernization wave that invested India in the post-colonial period.
- Several government and private initiatives have contributed to save endangered styles, but many are still at risk of extinction.
- Puppetry in India needs more support, recognition, and promotion to survive and thrive in the contemporary world.

### **Dance as Cultural Heritage of India**

- Dance is an ancient and celebrated cultural tradition in India that reflects the diversity, history and beliefs of its people.
- Dance in India can be classified into two main categories: classical and folk.
- Classical dance forms are based on the ancient texts of Natya Shastra and Abhinaya Darpana, and have a codified set of rules, techniques and gestures.
- Classical dance forms are usually performed in temples, courts and the-

atres, and are accompanied by classical music, costumes and makeup.

- The Sangeet Natak Academy recognises eight classical dance forms in India, namely, Bharatnatyam, Kathak, Kuchipudi, Kathakali, Odissi, Mohiniyattam, Manipuri and Satriya.
- Each classical dance form has its own regional origin, style, theme and expression, and showcases the rich heritage and cultural diversity of India.
- Folk dance forms are more spontaneous, informal and flexible, and are performed by the common people during festivals, weddings and other occasions.
- Folk dance forms are influenced by the local geography, climate, culture and traditions, and often incorporate elements of storytelling, humour and social commentary.
- Every part of India has its unique folk dance, such as Dumhal and Rouff of Jammu and Kashmir, Bhangra and Giddha of Punjab, Garba and Dandiya of Gujarat, Lavani and Koli of Maharashtra, Bihu and Bagurumba of Assam, Chhau and Santhal of West Bengal, Ghoomar and Kalbelia of Rajasthan, and many more.
- Folk dance forms are a vibrant and colourful expression of the joy, spirit and identity of the Indian people.
- Dance in India has also made its mark in the global arena, as the classical dance forms have been performed and taught by renowned artists across the world, and the folk dance forms have been adapted and fused with other genres of dance and music.
- Dance in India is not only a form of art, but also a way of life, a medium of communication, a mode of worship, and a source of inspiration.

### **Music as Cultural Heritage of India**

Music is an integral part of the cultural heritage of India. It reflects the diversity and richness of the Indian civilization, which has been influenced by various historical, religious, and regional factors. Music of India can be broadly classified into two main categories: classical music and folk music.

- Classical music is the art music that follows the rules and principles of ancient texts and traditions. It is based on the concept of raga, which is a melodic framework that evokes a certain mood or emotion, and tala, which is a rhythmic cycle that organizes the beats and accents. Classical music is further divided into two main styles: Hindustani music, which is prevalent in northern and central India, and Carnatic music, which is dominant in southern India. Both styles have their own distinct features, such as instruments, forms, compositions, and genres. Classical music is performed by highly trained and skilled musicians, who improvise and elaborate on the raga and tala according to their creativity and mastery. Classical music is considered to be a sacred and refined art form that connects the human soul with the divine. Some of the famous classical musicians of India are Ravi Shankar, Bismillah Khan, M.S. Subbulakshmi,



and Lata Mangeshkar.

- Folk music is the popular music that reflects the local culture and traditions of different regions and communities of India. It is based on the oral transmission and collective participation of the people, who sing and play music for various occasions, such as festivals, weddings, rituals, and celebrations. Folk music is more flexible and diverse than classical music, as it incorporates various elements, such as languages, dialects, melodies, rhythms, instruments, and genres. Folk music is also influenced by the social, political, and environmental changes that affect the lives of the people. Folk music is considered to be a lively and expressive art form that connects the people with their roots and identity. Some of the famous folk musicians of India are Bhupen Hazarika, Gurdas Maan, Ila Arun, and Shubha Mudgal.

Music of India is a cultural heritage that showcases the unity and diversity of the Indian nation. It is a source of pride and inspiration for the people, who cherish and preserve their musical traditions and also innovate and experiment with new forms and genres. Music of India is a universal language that transcends the boundaries of time, space, and culture, and communicates the emotions and values of the human spirit.

### **Theatre as Cultural Heritage of India**

- Theatre is a form of performing art that combines music, dance, dialogue, and spectacle to tell stories and express ideas.
- Theatre in India has a long and rich history, dating back to the Vedic period (around 1500 BCE), when rituals and hymns were performed as part of religious ceremonies.
- The earliest text on theatre in India is the *Natya Shastra*, written by Bharata Muni around 500 BCE. It is a comprehensive treatise on the theory and practice of theatre, covering topics such as dramaturgy, aesthetics, stage design, costumes, makeup, music, dance, acting, and genres.
- The *Natya Shastra* defines two types of theatre: *natya*, which is based on mythology and history, and *nataka*, which is based on contemporary events and social issues. It also classifies theatre into ten types according to the mood (*rasa*) and the hero (*nayaka*).
- Theatre in India developed into various regional forms, reflecting the diversity of languages, cultures, and traditions of the country. Some of the prominent forms of theatre in India are:
  - Kutiyattam, a Sanskrit theatre form from Kerala, recognized by UNESCO as a masterpiece of the oral and intangible heritage of humanity. It is known for its elaborate gestures, expressions, and costumes, and can last for several days.
  - Kathakali, another theatre form from Kerala, characterized by its colorful masks, elaborate makeup, and stylized movements. It is based on the epics of Ramayana and Mahabharata, and uses a combination

- of music, dance, and dialogue to narrate the stories.
- Yakshagana, a theatre form from Karnataka, which combines music, dance, dialogue, and costumes to depict the stories of gods, goddesses, and demons. It is performed in open-air stages, usually at night, and involves a lot of improvisation and interaction with the audience.
  - Nautanki, a popular theatre form from Uttar Pradesh and Bihar, which is known for its humorous and satirical tone. It deals with social and political issues, such as caste, gender, and corruption, and uses songs, dances, and dialogues to entertain and educate the masses.
  - Tamasha, a theatre form from Maharashtra, which originated as a folk entertainment for the lower classes. It is influenced by the Persian and Mughal cultures, and features a mix of music, dance, comedy, and drama. It often revolves around the love story of a king and a courtesan, and showcases the skills and talents of the female performers.
  - Jatra, a theatre form from West Bengal and Odisha, which is performed on a wooden stage with a curtain. It is based on religious, historical, or social themes, and uses songs, dances, and dialogues to convey the message. It is known for its loud and dramatic style, and its use of live music and sound effects.
  - Bhaona, a theatre form from Assam, which was created by the saint and reformer Sankardeva in the 15th century. It is based on the Bhagavata Purana, and uses music, dance, dialogue, and costumes to depict the life and teachings of Lord Krishna. It is performed in specially built theatres called namghars, which are also used as places of worship and community service.
- Theatre in India also underwent a modern transformation, influenced by the colonial and post-colonial contexts. Some of the notable figures of modern Indian theatre are:
    - Rabindranath Tagore, the Nobel laureate and polymath, who wrote and directed several plays in Bengali, English, and Hindi. He experimented with various forms and themes, such as realism, symbolism, nationalism, and humanism, and created a unique style of theatre that blended the classical and the contemporary.
    - Mohan Rakesh, the pioneer of the Hindi theatre movement, who wrote and directed plays that explored the existential and psychological aspects of human relationships. He is known for his plays such as *Ashadh Ka Ek Din*, *Aadhe Adhure*, and *Lehron Ke Rajhans*, which challenged the conventional norms and expectations of society and theatre.
    - Vijay Tendulkar, the leading playwright and social critic of Marathi theatre, who wrote and directed plays that exposed the dark and oppressive realities of Indian society. He is known for his plays such as *Shantata! Court Chalun Aahe*, *Ghashiram Kotwal*, and *Sakharam Binder*, which dealt with issues such

### **Drama as Cultural Heritage of India**

- Drama is a form of performing arts, where stories are enacted by the utilisation of dialogue, music, gesture, dance, and sound.
- Drama is one of the oldest and richest forms of cultural expression in India, dating back to the ancient Vedic period .
- Drama in India has been influenced by various religious, social, and linguistic traditions, such as Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism, Islam, and regional languages.
- Drama in India has also been shaped by various classical theatre traditions, such as Sanskrit theatre, folk theatre, and Urdu theatre .
- Sanskrit theatre is the earliest existing form of drama and theatre in India, attributed to the sage Bharata, who wrote the *Natyashastra*, a treatise on dramaturgy .
- Folk theatre is a diverse and vibrant form of drama that reflects the local cultures, customs, and beliefs of different regions and communities in India.
- Urdu theatre is a form of drama that emerged from the courtly culture of the Mughal Empire, and later developed into the Parsi theatre, which influenced modern theatre, particularly in Hindi, Marathi, and Bengali languages.
- Drama in India is a cultural heritage that showcases the diversity, creativity, and spirituality of the Indian people, and also contributes to the social and educational development of the society.

### **Painting as Cultural Heritage of India**

- Painting is one of the oldest and most diverse forms of art in India, dating back to prehistoric times.
- Painting reflects the cultural, religious, and political aspects of Indian society, as well as the aesthetic and creative expressions of the artists.
- Painting in India can be classified into various styles, such as mural, miniature, folk, tribal, modern, and contemporary, each with its own characteristics and influences.
- Some of the most famous and distinctive styles of painting in India are:
  - Madhubani: A folk painting style from Bihar, characterized by intricate patterns, geometric shapes, and bright colors. It depicts themes from Hindu mythology, nature, and social life.
  - Warli: A tribal painting style from Maharashtra, characterized by simple and monochromatic lines and dots. It depicts scenes of daily life, rituals, and festivals of the Warli tribe.
  - Mughal: A miniature painting style that flourished under the Mughal dynasty, influenced by Persian and Indian art. It depicts portraits, court scenes, landscapes, and flora and fauna, with rich details and

colors.

- Rajput: A miniature painting style that developed in the Rajput kingdoms of Rajasthan, influenced by Mughal, Hindu, and Jain art. It depicts themes from Hindu epics, legends, and poetry, with vibrant colors and emotions.
  - Tanjore: A classical painting style from Tamil Nadu, characterized by the use of gold foil, precious stones, and bright colors. It depicts Hindu gods and goddesses, saints, and religious scenes, with a sense of devotion and splendor.
  - Bengal: A modern painting style that emerged in the 19th and 20th centuries in Bengal, influenced by Western and Indian art. It depicts realistic and abstract themes, such as social issues, nationalism, spirituality, and nature, with a sense of innovation and experimentation.
- Painting in India is a valuable part of the country's cultural heritage, as it showcases the diversity, richness, and beauty of Indian art and culture. It also inspires and influences artists and art lovers across the world.

### Martial Arts Traditions of India

- Martial arts are codified systems and traditions of combat practices, which are practised for a variety of reasons – self-defence, competition, physical health and fitness, entertainment, as well as mental, physical, and spiritual development.
- India has an ancient tradition in diverse martial arts, dating back to the Vedic period and influenced by the geography, culture, and history of the subcontinent.
- Some of the most famous martial arts in India are:
  - **Kalaripayattu**: Often known as the 'Mother Of All Martial Arts', this 3000-year old art form originating from Kerala, draws inspiration from the raw power, swift movements and sinuous strength of majestic animals – the lion, tiger, elephant, wild boar, snake and crocodile. It involves strikes, kicks, grappling, weaponry, and healing methods.
  - **Silambam**: A traditional Tamil martial art that uses a long bamboo staff as the main weapon, along with other weapons such as swords, daggers, and spears. It is known for its fluid and circular movements, and its emphasis on footwork, agility, and timing.
  - **Thang-Ta**: The ancient Manipuri martial art, also known as Huyen Lallong, that uses swords and spears as the main weapons, along with shields, axes, and daggers. It is a powerful yet gracefully complex technique that combines offensive and defensive maneuvers, and also incorporates ritual dances and healing practices.
  - **Gatka**: A Sikh martial art that originated in Punjab and was used by the Khalsa army in the 18th and 19th centuries. It involves the use of various weapons, such as swords, daggers, sticks, and shields,

as well as unarmed combat. It is based on the principle of one spirit in two bodies, and requires coordination, speed, and accuracy.

- **Kushti:** One of the most popular martial arts in India, also known as Pehlwani or traditional wrestling. It started off during the Mughal times where Malla Yuddha, a local sport was combined with a Persian sport named Varzesh-e-Bastani. It involves grappling, throws, locks, and pins, and is practised on a clay or dirt pit called akhada.
  - **Lathi:** India's oldest armed martial art, also regarded as one of the world's earliest martial arts weapons. It involves the use of a bamboo or iron staff, ranging from 4 to 12 feet in length, as well as shields, swords, and axes. It is mainly practised in rural areas of northern and eastern India, and is used for self-defence, law enforcement, and social control.
- These are some of the examples of the rich and diverse martial arts traditions of India, which reflect the cultural and historical heritage of the country. There are many more martial arts in India, such as Mardani Khel, Sqay, Thoda, Inbuan, and Niyuddha, that have their own unique features and significance.

### Fairs and Festivals as Cultural Heritage of India

- India is a land of diverse cultures, religions, languages, and traditions. It is also a land of vibrant celebrations, where various fairs and festivals are held throughout the year to mark important occasions, honor deities, commemorate saints, express gratitude, and showcase the rich and colorful heritage of the country.
- Fairs and festivals in India reflect the diversity and unity of the people, as well as the values and beliefs that have shaped the Indian civilization for thousands of years. They are also a source of joy, entertainment, social bonding, and economic activity for the participants and spectators.
- Some of the most famous fairs and festivals in India are:
  - **Makar Sankranti:** A harvest festival celebrated in January, when the sun enters the zodiac sign of Capricorn. It is also known as Pongal, Lohri, Bihu, and Maghi in different regions. People fly kites, light bonfires, prepare sweets, and worship the sun god .
  - **Holi:** A festival of colors and love, celebrated in March, to mark the arrival of spring and the victory of good over evil. People smear each other with colored powder and water, play music, dance, and share sweets.
  - **Ugadi:** A new year festival celebrated in March or April by the people of Andhra Pradesh, Telangana, Karnataka, and Maharashtra. It is also known as Gudi Padwa, Cheti Chand, and Navreh. People decorate their homes, wear new clothes, make rangoli, and eat a special dish called Ugadi Pachadi, which has six different tastes to

symbolize the various aspects of life.

- **Baisakhi:** A harvest festival celebrated in April by the people of Punjab, Haryana, and Delhi. It is also the day when the Khalsa Panth, the Sikh brotherhood, was founded by Guru Gobind Singh in 1699. People perform bhangra and gidda dances, visit gurdwaras, and take part in processions.
- **Rath Yatra:** A chariot festival celebrated in June or July by the devotees of Lord Jagannath, an incarnation of Vishnu, in Puri, Odisha. It is also known as the Car Festival, as three huge wooden chariots carrying the idols of Jagannath, Balabhadra, and Subhadra are pulled by thousands of people along a 3 km route to the Gundicha Temple. It is one of the oldest and largest religious gatherings in the world.
- **Ganesh Chaturthi:** A festival dedicated to the elephant-headed god Ganesh, celebrated in August or September, especially in Maharashtra, Goa, and Karnataka. People install clay idols of Ganesh in their homes or public places, and worship him for 10 days with offerings of modak, a sweet dumpling. On the last day, the idols are immersed in water bodies, with chants of “Ganpati Bappa Morya”.
- **Onam:** A harvest festival celebrated in August or September by the people of Kerala. It is also the day when the mythical king Mahabali, who was banished by Vishnu, returns to visit his subjects. People decorate their homes with flower carpets, wear traditional clothes, play games, perform dances, and enjoy a grand feast called Onasadya.
- **Dussehra:** A festival that celebrates the victory of Rama over Ravana, the demon king of Lanka, in the epic Ramayana. It is celebrated in September or October, on the tenth day of the Hindu month of Ashwin. People enact the story of Ramayana in plays called Ramleela, and burn effigies of Ravana, Kumbhakarna, and Meghnad, along with fireworks. It is also known as Vijayadashami, as it marks the triumph of good over evil.
- **Navratri:** A nine-night festival that honors the nine forms of the goddess Durga, the supreme mother of the universe. It is celebrated in September or October, coinciding with Dussehra. People worship the goddess in different ways, such as fasting, performing rituals, and dancing to the tunes of garba and dandiya. It is also known as D

### Current developments in Arts and Culture in India

- India has a rich and diverse cultural heritage that includes various forms of art, music, dance, theatre, literature, architecture, and festivals.
- India is also home to 37 world heritage sites, two major film industries, and many regional and folk traditions that reflect the diversity and pluralism of the country.
- In recent years, India has witnessed some new trends and developments

in the field of arts and culture, such as:

- The emergence of contemporary Indian art that explores themes such as identity, globalization, social issues, and environmental concerns. Some of the prominent contemporary artists include Anish Kapoor, Subodh Gupta, Bharti Kher, Nalini Malani, and Jitish Kallat.
- The inclusion of three Indian cities, Thrissur and Nilambur in Kerala and Warangal in Telangana, in the UNESCO Global Network of Learning Cities. These cities have demonstrated their commitment to promoting lifelong learning, social inclusion, and cultural diversity through various initiatives and programs.
- The nomination of Hoysala Temples in Karnataka for inscription in the World Heritage List. These temples are examples of the Hoysala style of architecture that flourished between the 11th and 14th centuries and are known for their intricate carvings and sculptures.
- The repatriation of a 10th-century Yogini statue from the US to India. The statue, depicting a female deity with a goat head, was stolen from a temple in Bihar and smuggled to the US. It was returned to India after a legal battle and is now displayed at the National Museum in New Delhi.
- The celebration of Sydney WorldPride, a flagship event that brings together the LGBT community and its allies from around the world. India participated in the event with a delegation of artists, activists, and performers who showcased the diversity and vibrancy of the Indian queer culture.

### **Indian's Cultural Contribution to the World**

India is one of the oldest and most diverse civilizations in the world. It has a rich and varied heritage of culture, art, science, and spirituality that has influenced many aspects of human development. Some of the contributions of India to the world are:

- Mathematics: India was the birthplace of many mathematical concepts and techniques, such as the decimal system, zero, algebra, trigonometry, geometry, calculus, and the concept of infinity . India also developed the concept of negative numbers, fractions, and the use of symbols for mathematical operations.
- Architecture: India has a remarkable architectural legacy, ranging from the ancient Indus Valley civilization to the medieval temples, forts, palaces, and monuments. India is known for its diversity of architectural styles, such as the rock-cut caves, the stupa, the chaitya, the shikhara, the mandapa, the gopuram, the vimana, the chhatra, the minaret, the dome, and the arch . India also pioneered the use of iron and steel in construction, such as the iron pillar of Delhi and the Konark Sun Temple.
- Textiles: India is one of the world's largest producers and exporters of textiles, especially cotton. India invented the technique of spinning and

weaving cotton, as well as dyeing, printing, and embroidering fabrics. India also introduced the world to various types of fabrics, such as muslin, calico, chintz, khadi, and brocade . India also invented the button, the needle, and the sewing machine.

- **Medicine:** India has a long and rich tradition of medicine, dating back to the ancient Vedas and the Ayurveda system. India developed the concepts of surgery, anesthesia, plastic surgery, dentistry, ophthalmology, and pharmacology. India also discovered many herbs, spices, and minerals that have medicinal properties, such as turmeric, ginger, garlic, pepper, salt, and mercury . India also invented the technique of inoculation and vaccination against smallpox.
- **Language:** India is home to many languages and scripts, belonging to various linguistic families. India is the source of the Indo-European languages, which include most of the languages spoken in Europe and Asia. India also developed the Sanskrit language, which is considered one of the oldest and most refined languages in the world. Sanskrit is the language of many ancient texts, such as the Vedas, the Upanishads, the Mahabharata, the Ramayana, and the Bhagavad Gita. Sanskrit has influenced many other languages, such as Hindi, Urdu, Bengali, Gujarati, Marathi, Nepali, and even English .
- **Art:** India has a rich and diverse artistic heritage, spanning various forms and genres, such as painting, sculpture, pottery, metalwork, jewelry, music, dance, drama, and literature. India is known for its vibrant and colorful art, which reflects its religious, philosophical, and cultural diversity. India has produced many masterpieces of art, such as the Ajanta and Ellora caves, the Khajuraho temples, the Taj Mahal, the Mughal miniatures, the Tanjore paintings, the Madhubani paintings, the Pattachitra paintings, the Raga paintings, the Rabindranath Tagore paintings, and the Amrita Sher-Gil paintings .
- **Spirituality:** India is the birthplace of many religions and spiritual traditions, such as Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism, Sikhism, and Zoroastrianism. India is also the land of many saints, sages, mystics, and philosophers, who have explored the nature of reality, the self, and the divine. India has given the world many concepts and practices of spirituality, such as yoga, meditation, karma, dharma, reincarnation, nirvana, moksha, ahimsa, satyagraha, and swaraj . India has also influenced many other religions and spiritual movements, such as Christianity, Islam, Judaism, Baha'i, Theosophy, and New Age.

### **Indian Cinema as a Performing Art in India**

- Indian cinema is a form of art that combines storytelling, performing arts, and science to create audio-visual narratives that reflect the culture, history, and diversity of India .
- Indian cinema has a long and rich history that dates back to the silent era in the early 20th century, when pioneers like Dadasaheb Phalke and Raja



Harishchandra made the first feature films in India.

- Indian cinema has evolved over the decades, influenced by various social, political, and economic factors, as well as by the changing tastes and preferences of the audiences.
- Indian cinema has also been influenced by the classical and folk traditions of Indian performing arts, such as theatre, dance, music, and puppetry .
- Indian cinema has adopted and adapted the concepts of rasa (emotion), natya (drama), and nritya (dance) from the ancient treatise on performing arts, the Natyashastra, written by Bharata Muni.
- Indian cinema has also been influenced by the Indian People's Theatre Association (IPTA), a progressive cultural movement that emerged in the 1940s and aimed to use theatre and cinema as a medium of social change and awareness.
- Indian cinema has produced many genres, styles, and movements, such as the parallel cinema, the new wave cinema, the masala cinema, the regional cinema, and the art cinema, among others.
- Indian cinema has also produced many acclaimed and influential filmmakers, actors, and technicians, such as Satyajit Ray, Raj Kapoor, Guru Dutt, Ritwik Ghatak, Shyam Benegal, Nargis, Amitabh Bachchan, A.R. Rahman, and many more.
- Indian cinema has also gained global recognition and appreciation, winning awards and accolades at various international film festivals and platforms, such as the Cannes Film Festival, the Academy Awards, the BAFTA Awards, and the Golden Globe Awards.
- Indian cinema is a vibrant and dynamic form of art that continues to grow and innovate, exploring new themes, techniques, and formats, such as the digital cinema, the web series, the documentary cinema, and the animation cinema.